## BUS322 - ORGANISATIONAL BEHAVIOUR SUMMARY

Q. Briefly, define management

### Meaning of Management

Management is a process or activity, which takes place at all levels in an organisation. It is not carried out only by people with manager in their job title. Management in the true sense involves the accomplishment of goals or objectives and is not simply a position within a business. Management is generally considered to have three major dimensions: technical, conceptual and human.

Q. Give the definition of management according to different scholars.

### Definition of Management

Drucker (1973) sees management as the specific organ of the business enterprise. This is just like saying that the heart is the specific organ of the body.

Mac Farlan (1978) defines management as the process by which managers create, maintains, and operate a purposeful organisation through systematic co-ordinated human efforts.

Koontz O' Donnell and Weihrich (1993) defined management as a process as the design or creation and maintenance of an internal environment in which people working together in group can perform effectively and efficiently towards the attainment of group goals. In other words, it is the undertaken of individuals to make their best contributions towards group objectives.

Rosemary Stewaart (1981) can be said to have summarized management as a process by saying it is deciding what to do and getting others to do it.

Q. Explain the different perspectives of management

### Management Perspectives

**(i) People**

Management refers to people as a particular category of employees who are involved in the business of management. The operators at different levels of management are commonly called managers and there are many different types of managers, with diverse tasks and responsibilities.

**(ii) A discipline**

Management in this sense is used to refer to an area of study. That is a well-developed body of knowledge detailing the science of getting things done in the most effective and efficient manner. And as a discipline, it can therefore be transmitted from one person to another.

**(iii) A profession**

This means that management is practiced as a career with many persons today making their living as managers. Definitions however vary as to what constitute a profession but given the basic characteristics of a true profession, it seems that management is still not fully a profession.

**(iv) A science or art**

Management is often referred to as an art because it deals with the practical application of both knowledge and skill to achieve an objective. And since it involves the use of certain management techniques, principles and theories that are today well developed and organised it is also called a science. It has, however, been argued that the science and art of management are not mutually exclusive, they are complimentary. As the science of management improves so should the art of management. A balance between the two is needed. Management will therefore always be a mixture of both art and science.

**(v) As a process (or activity)**

Perhaps the most useful view of management is that of management as process. A process is a systematic way of doing things. Management is defined as a process because all managers, regardless of their particular aptitudes or skills, engage in certain interrelated activities in order to achieve their desired goal. And as a process, management has been widely conceptualized and, or defined.

Q. Why in your own view are the management functions considered central to a discussion of management?

It must be stressed that management is a process or activity which takes place at all levels in an organization. It is not carried out only by people with 'manager' in their job title. Departmental heads, Supervisors, Foremen, Stores officers, Presidents or even Boy's scout leader all performs managerial functions; although obviously not at the same capacity. It is the task which a person performs which is of importance not the job title. Hence managers, whoever they may be, tend to have the same set of functions in an organization. Thus, these activities are called management functions, because, they identify broadly with what managers do. These managerial functions are generally considered central to a discussion of management by authors.

The above perspectives as to the meaning of management clearly demonstrate that there are certain activities that are specifically managerial and a manager is known by performing these functions. He may perform these functions well or not, consciously or unconsciously, adequately or inadequately but he nevertheless performs them. These functions are generally grouped under the following headings: planning, organizing, staffing, directing, coordinating and controlling.

Q. Explain the basic functions of management

**The Functions of Management**

1. **The Planning Function**

Planning, simply put, is a decision making process that pertains to the future. In the managerial sense, planning is the determination of what to do and how to do it. It involves all activities leading to the formulation of objectives and deciding upon the means of meeting them. Planning therefore, is making decisions from many alternatives. Obviously, the manager must have knowledge of the many opportunities that present themselves and must have ability to create and develop opportunities, but in the long run he or she must be able to analyse the opportunities and to select the best one for the conditions that exist. The plan is the net results of the planning process.

## 2. The Organizing Function

In a very brief summary, the preparation required for managerial plans into action is called organizing. It is the managerial process of arranging and allocating work, authority and resources among an organization's members so they can achieve an organization's goals efficiently. Basically, organizing involves the determination of the activities required to achieve the established objectives, grouping these activities in logical basis for handling by a subordinate manager, and finally, assigning the designed jobs to different persons and work department to assist a manager in executing them. The net result of organizing is the organization structure.

## 3. The Staffing Function

Staffing is the managerial function of matching the right people with the right job. It has been broadly defined as filling, and keeping filled, the position vacancies in the organization structure through proper and effective recruitment, selection and development of qualified personnel to do the organization's work (Koontz, O'Donnell et al., 1993 p. 356). Like organizing, this function is not performed once and abandoned; it must be constantly worked at in order to have qualified people available in the future to move into vacated positions or to allow the company to expand it activities

This function, therefore, includes such things as the development of manpower requirement for all the various existing jobs. The appraisal and selection of candidates for dates and incumbents on jobs in order to improve their used for the managerial function of staffing is called human resources management.

## 4. The Directing Function

To get things done through others, a manager is called upon to direct, supervise, motivate and lead his subordinates to do the assigned jobs effectively and willingly and strive to achieve the set objectives. His is the domain of directing as a managerial function. Directing assures the performance of the assign work by individual employees. Specifically, it has been defined as the managerial activity of providing all guidance and inspiration to people at work to carry out their assigned duties of responsibility. It included explaining procedures, offering instructions on the job, issuing order and directives and seeing to it that occurring errors are rectified in time.

## 5. The Coordinating Function

Coordination is not generally regarded as a separate function of the manager, but it is so essential to the successful performance of any manager. It is a managerial process whereby the effort of a group is synchronized or unified, so that the desired objective is easily achieved. If there are multiple goals in the people's minds, coordination of effort may be impossible. To coordinate therefore means to unite all activities. Coordination is the central problem of an organization. Without coordination, people and departments would lose sight of their roles within the organization and be tempted to pursue their own special or personal interest often at the expense of the organizational goals. Thus, coordinating provides the requisite unity and harmony needed to attain organizational goals. Basically, coordination is interested in synchronization of all efforts provided in their proper amount, timing, direction and motivation so that all unified and harmonized activities can be performed in the proper sequence for achieving desired objective/s. Communications plays an important role in coordination as many breakdowns in coordinating efforts occur because people simply do not have the information or knowledge they need in order to bring about coordination.

## 6. The Controlling Function

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Control is a primary management activity and is the function which attempt to maintain conformity between goals and results. Specifically, the managerial function of controlling is the process of monitoring subordinate performance whereby actual results are compared with planned or to amend in order to bring activities in line with plans or to amend the plans. Control in essence compels events to conform to plans. Compelling events to conform to plans invariable means that person/s are responsible for the deviation from plans and should take the steps necessary to see that these persons modify their performance.

Q. Point out the distinction between management and administration.

**Management and Administration**

There is often confusion over different interpretations of the two terms 'management' and 'administration'. One of the main reasons for this confusion may result from the translation of Fayol's book: Administration Industrielle et Generalle from French into English (Mullins, 1996). In the original 1929 English edition, there was a direct translation of 'administration', but in the wider republication of the book in 1949, the term 'management' replaced 'administration' in the title. In the introduction to the revised edition, Urwick regrets this change. He refers to Fayol's use of the word administration as indicating a specific function which covers all tasks involved in the supervision of the work of others. It is not concerned with the status of those who exercise this function. Brech (1975), specifically defined administration as: That part of management which is concerned with the installation and carrying out of the procedures by which the programme is laid down and communicated, and the progress of activities is regulated and checked against plans.

In this regard, administration is said to be a purposeful process, which involves the setting of objectives, the determination of policies and strategies, and the direction of people in some group purpose or endeavour. When we therefore talk of administration, we talk of the process whereby the objectives are realised.

Urwick also expresses concern at the possible division between management being seen to apply only to business organisation and (public) administration as applying to the same function; we talk of process whereby the objectives are realised. Dictionary definitions tend to see the two words as synonymous. Management is sometimes referred to as 'administration of business concerns'.

There is clearly an overlap between the two terms and they tend to be used in accordance with the convenience of individual writers. This confirms the feeling that although most people perceive a difference between the two terms, this difference is not easy to describe. The use of the term administration has traditionally been associated with public sector organizations, but the term management is now used increasingly. This can be seen in the publication of the report of the study group appointed to 'examine management principles and structures in local government at both elected members and officer levels'. The report includes frequent reference to the corporate management, the management process and the management team. There is also an increasing number of books which examine management in the public sector.

There appears, therefore, to be a growing acceptance of the term management as the general descriptive label and administration as relating to the more specific function of the operation of procedures used by management. Administration can be seen as taking place in accordance with some sort of rules of procedures, whereas management implies a greater degree of discretion.

Q. Define organizational behaviour as a field of study

**Definition of Organizational Behaviour**

Organizational behaviour is directly concerned with the conceptual and human side of management and with the application of techniques that most experts in productivity are talking about. It represents the behavioural approach to management though not the whole of management. In other words organizational behaviour does not intend to portray the whole of management since there are other recognized approaches to management including the process, qualitative system and contingency approaches.

The study of O.B. is generally concerned with how to understand, predict and influence human behaviour in organizations. It basically deals with the human aspect of business and industrial concern. It is a truth that organizations are faced with a mirage of intractable financial, technical, scientific problems etc., none is, however, more serious and challenging than the complex task of understanding why people behave the way they do in an organization.

Presently, O.B. is an active, vigorous field with two major goals:

1. Increased understanding of organizations and behaviour within them

2. Application of this knowledge to the solution of many practical problems and the enhancement of organizational effectiveness.

Q. In what ways do the different behavioural influencing variables help explain the understanding of human behaviour in organizations?

**Influences on Behaviour in Organizations**

1. **The Individual**

Organizations are made up of their individual members. The individual is a central feature of organizational behaviour and a necessary part of any behavioural situation, whether acting in isolation or as part of a group, in response to expectations of the organization, or as a result of influences of the external environment. Where the needs of the individual and the demands of the organization are incompatible, it results in frustration and conflict. It is the task of management to provide a working environment which permits the satisfaction of individual needs as well as the attainment of organizational goals.

2. **The Group**

Groups exist in all organizations and are essential to their working and performances. The organization is comprised of groups of people and almost everyone in an organization will be a member of one or more groups. Informal groups arise from the social needs of people within the organization. People in groups influence each other in many ways, and groups may develop their own hierarchies and leaders. Group pressures can have a major influence over the behaviour and performance of individual members. An understanding of group structure and behaviour complements knowledge of individual behaviour and adds a further dimension to organizational behaviour.

3. **The Organization**

Individuals and groups interact within the structure of the formal organization. Structure is created by management to establish relationships between individuals and groups, to provide order and systems and to direct the efforts of the organization into goal-seeking activities. It is through the formal structure that people carry out their organizational activities in order to achieve aims and objectives. Behaviour is affected by patterns of organizational structure, technology, styles of leadership and systems of management through which organizational processes are planned, directed and controlled. The focus of attention therefore, is on the impact

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of organization structure and design, and patterns of management, on the behaviour of people within the organization.

### 4. The Environment

All organizations function as part of the broader external environment of which it is part. There are different variables within the external environment that affect the organization. For example, technological and scientific development, economic activity, social and cultural influences and governmental actions have tremendous impact on organizational operations.

The effects of the operations of the organization within its environment are reflected in terms of the management of opportunities and risks and the successful achievement of its aims and objectives. The increasing rate of change in environmental factors has necessitated the need to study the total organization and the processes by which the organization attempts to adapt to the external demands placed upon it. These different dimensions above provide contrasting but related approaches to the understanding of human behaviour in organizations. They present a number of alternative ways for the study of the subject and extent of related analysis.

Q. Describe the ways in which culture interacts with business.

### Cultural Influences and Organizational Behaviour

Culture is defined as that part of human action that is socially as opposed to genetically transmitted. It is that which causes one group of people to act collectively in a way that is different from another. Needle (1999) identifies three different ways in which culture interacts with business. These are:

1. Our socialization, the influences which shape our behaviour in a particular social setting, will determine our individual's orientation to work.

2. We see organizations as societies in microcosm with their own specific cultures and ways of transmitting these cultures to their members.

3. Culture is used as an analytical device to distinguish one society from another.

Q. Explain the four (4) effects of culture on organizations as proposed by Hofstede.

Hofstede (1980) as cited by Needle (1999) identified four key cultural variables that tend to show the extent to which business activities are culturally defined. The variables are power distance, individualism, uncertainty avoidance and masculinity.

**1. Power Distance**: This is the extent to which members of a society accept that power is distributed unequally in organizations. Inequality is based upon physical economic, intellectual or social characteristics. In a society where power distance is small, attempt is made to reduce the inequality, while in a society where it is large, social relations is based on it.

**2. Individualism**: Individualistic society shows preference for looking after oneself or one's immediate family group, a belief in freedom and a tendency towards a calculative involvement with work organization. In collective society the reverse is the case.

**3. Uncertainty Avoidance**: This is the extent to which members of a society feel uncomfortable with uncertainty. Those with strong uncertainty avoidance tend to be anxious about the future and have inability to tolerate deviant ideas, while those with weak uncertainty avoidance show a willingness to accept new ideas and take risks.

**4. Masculinity**: Masculine societies tend to display a preference for achievement, assertiveness and material success and a strong belief in gender roles, while feminine societies tend to place more emphasis on the quality of life, care for others and equality, more especially between the sexes.

Q. What is an Organization?

**Meaning of Organization**

An organization is a planned unit deliberately structured for the purpose of achieving specific goals. It is an assemblage of interacting human beings with a central coordination unit. A system of roles graded by authority and a social unit or human grouping deliberately constructed and re-constructed to seek specific goals. Also, an organization is a collection of those activities directed at organizing.

Q. Enumerate the common characteristics of an organization.

**The Key Characteristics of Organizations**

1. They are set up to pursue objectives (co-operative mission)
2. They have individuals and groups who interact
3. There are jobs and tasks to be performed
4. It is a system of co-operative activities
5. It has an input-output process.

Q. Explain the types of organization

**The Types of Organization**

Several types of organizations can be distinguished. Broadly, they are classified into two:

(a) Formal organization

(b) Informal organizations

**Formal Organization**

A formal organization is established to achieve certain goals. The common features of a formal organization are:

• Pre-planned pattern of authority and influence

• Deliberate allocation of functions

• Existence stated policies, procedure and regulations

• Following of precedent

• Defined activities of individuals and departments or units

• Existence of long-term objectives

• Membership is gained consciously and largely openly.

**Informal Organization**

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This is also referred to as a spontaneous organization in the sense that it is not as a result of a conscious plan. In many businesses, large or small, there is usually a tendency for an informal organization to grow up and operate concurrently. This may be to remedy inherent shortfalls in the organization or to take advantage of a weak manager, anticipate natural changes eventually requiring the taking of formal action. In the view of R.B. Ayanniyi, informal organizations can assist in achieving better cooperation and motivation of workers if properly encouraged.

The following are some elements of informal organizations:

• They can lead to meritocracy

• Employee reactions in certain situations may become unpredictable

• Planning becomes difficult

• They lead to short-circuiting in the management decision chain.

Q. State and explain Henri Fayol's fourteen (14) principles of management.

**Principles of Organization**

The principles of organization as formulated by Henri Fayol are:

**1. Division of work**: Increase productivity as a result of specialization

**2. Authority and Responsibility**: The right to give order. This should be commensurate with responsibility.

**3. Discipline**: There must respect for and obedience to the rules and objectives of the organization.

**4. Unity of Command**: Each subordinate should come under from and be responsible to one superior.

**5. Unity of Direction**: Every part should contribute to the attainment of the enterprise objective.

**6. Subordination of Individual Interest**: The interest of the employee or group should not prevail over the interest of the organization.

**7. Remuneration**: Workers must be paid fair wages for services rendered.

**8. Centralization**: There should be a balance between concentration and distribution of authority in the organization.

**9. Scalar Chain**: There should be clear line of unbroken authority.

**10. Order**: There should be social and material order. A place for everything and everything in its place.

**11. Equity**: Fairness, cordiality, kindness and justice based on predetermined norms.

**12. Stability of Tenure**: Job security should be used to reward good performance.

**13. *Espirit de Corps***: Unity in strength.

**14. Initiatives**: All personnel must be allowed to show their initiative in some way.

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Q. State the principles of organization as enunciated by Taylor and Urwick.

**Frederick W. Taylor (1856-1915): the Scientific Management Movement**

Frederick Taylor is commonly referred to as the father of scientific management movement. Taylor's research work was largely focused on:

1. Improvement of working tools
2. Analysis and innovation of work methods
3. Enforced standardization of work methods
4. Enforced cooperation

Taylor's principles as summarized by Villers (1960) are:

(a) Time Study Principle – Production effort should be measured by the standard and time and accurate time study established for the work.

(b) Piece-rate Principle – Wages should be made proportional to output. Rate being based on standards already established.

(c) Separation of Planning from Performance – Managements should be responsible for planning and also make sure performance is physically possible.

(d) Scientific Methods of Work Principle – Managements should take charge of the work method and train the workforce accordingly.

(e) Managerial Control Principle – Managers should be taught how to apply scientific principles of management and control.

(f) Functional Management Principle – Advocates the application of military principles and the design of industrial organisations to serve desired purpose.

**Urwick and Gulick (1937)**

Urwick and Gulick worked on Fayol's principles of management to derive more articulate and up-to-date principles of management. According to them, the primary works of the executive are: planning, organising, staffing, directing, coordinating, reporting and budgeting, which stand for the acronym: "POSDCORB".

This was later expanded by Enaohwo and Eferakeya, (1989) as POSDCORBE, with the addition of 'E'.

P - Planning

O - Organizing

S - Staffing

D -Directing

C - Coordinating

R - Reporting

B - Budgeting

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E - Evaluation

The above represent the traditional functions of the chief executive.

Q. Define role as a concept

**The Nature of Roles**

Role has been defined as a position that has expectations evolving from established norms. In other word, roles are positions in an organization defined by a set of expectations about behaviour of any incumbent or occupant.

Role by its nature draws or attracts behaviour from the person who holds the role or position. The position you occupied and the expectations from such a position refers to your role in the society, family and organization. Persons living in modern society assume a succession of roles throughout life. A typical sequence of social roles would be that of child, son or daughter, teenager, college student, boyfriend or girlfriend, spouse, parent, and grandparent. Each of these roles has recognized expectations which are acted out like a role in a play.

**Role Conflict**

Role Conflict –involves an incompatibility between job tasks/activities, resources, rules or policies, and other people. Ordinarily, conflict is defined as the struggle between incompatible or opposing needs, wishes, ideas, interest or people. Conflict arises when individual or groups encounters goals that parties cannot attain/obtain satisfactorily. In any organization, setting groups do put effective pressure on individuals by the requirement to comply with the rules and regulations of their association. Pressure arises particularly because, usually, unwritten 'laws' to fall in line are often backed by sanctions in the form of the uncooperative behaviour of the rest of group and all possible forms of ostracisation. And this can lead to stress on the individual who dares to fall out with the group. This stress arises as a result of role conflict and role ambiguity. Role Conflict Occurs when a group member is obliged to behave in ways inconsistent with his inmate behavioural patterns.

Q. Explain clearly the different types of role conflict

**The Different Types of Role Conflict**

There are four principal types of role conflicts:

The first type is known as inter-sender role conflict and it occurs when the inconsistent demand faced by the individual comes from different members of a group.

The second, referred to as inter-sender role occurs when the inconsistent demand comes from the same manager or office

Inter role conflict is the third and it is induced when someone outside a group makes a demand inconsistent with the group's (own role).

The fourth type called person-role conflict develops when the group's demand is inconsistent with the individual's own beliefs, attitudes and general value system.

Q. What is role ambiguity?

**Role Ambiguity**

Role ambiguity results from inadequate information or knowledge to do a job. This ambiguity may be due to inadequate training, poor communication, or the deliberate withholding or distortion of information by a co-worker or supervisor. Role ambiguity is of two types:

**1. Task Ambiguity**: Task Ambiguity occurs when an individual is uncertain about his group's desired and expected behaviour or task.

**2. Emotional Ambiguity**: Emotional Ambiguity occurs when a group member is unsure of his status or the person is unsure about his supervisor's assessment of him.

Two factors have been identified as commonly giving rise to role conflict and ambiguity.

1. Role conflict and ambiguity may occur either because an individual is new in a group and is yet to understand his role, status and the group's expectations.

2. Because of a structure and role relationship change in the group. In any event, the result of role conflict and ambiguity is stress for the individual, and there is a substantial body of research indicating undesirable outcomes for the individual and the organization.

Fillery and House (1983) indicated in their research report that the impact of the undesirable effects from role conflicts depends upon four major variables.

1. Awareness of role conflict
2. Acceptance of conflicting job pressures
3. Ability to tolerate stress
4. General personality make up

## The Types of Conflict

### 1. Intra-individual Conflict

In reality, a smooth progression of the fulfillment of one's role expectation does not always occur. This is because within every individual there are usually:

- A number of competing needs and roles, the role of a man as a manager and as father/husband.
- A variety of different ways that motives and roles can be expressed.
- Many types of barriers which can occur between the drive/need and the goal.
- Both positive and negative aspects attached to desire goals.

These complicate the human adaptation process and often result into conflict. Intra-individual forms of conflict can be analysed in terms of the frustration paradigm, goals and roles.

### i. Conflict Due to Frustration

Frustration occurs when a motivated need drive is blocked before reaching a desired goal. The barrier may be either overt (outward or physical) or covert (inward or mental-psychological). Frustration normally triggers defense mechanism in the person. Traditional psychologists felt that frustration always leads to the defense mechanism of aggression. On becoming frustrated, it was through that a person will react by physically of symbolically attacking the barrier. An example of a frustration situation might be that of a thirsty person who comes up against stuck or locked door/gate and is prevented from reaching a water trap/foundation.

### ii. Goal Conflict

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Another common source of conflict for an individual is a goal which has both positive and negative feature or two more competing goals. While in frustration a single motive is blocked before the goals is reached, in goal conflict two or more motives block one another. For ease of analysis, three separate types of goal conflict are generally identified:

**The Types of Goal Conflict**

**i. Approach** – Approach conflict results where an individual is motivated to approach two more mutually exclusive of desirable goals. For example, a new graduate confronted with two excellent job opportunities, such situations often cause the person some anxiety but are quickly resolved.

**ii. Approach – avoidance conflict**: This is a situation where an individual is motivated to approach a goal and at the same time motivated to avoid it. The single goal contains both positive and negative characteristics for the individual. Normally, organizational goals have positive and negative aspects for organization participations. Increase in fuel pump price though necessary for President Obasanjo to be able to deregulate fuel, can also bring down his government and his political party chances.

**iii. Avoidance – avoidance conflict**: This is where the individual is motivated to avoid two or more negative but mutually exclusive goals. That is both opportunities are not attractive, and there is a great difficulty in avoiding both. Avoidance – avoidance conflict is easily resolved. A person faced with two negative goals may not choose either of them and may simply leave the situation. Most personnel in modern organizations are unable to resolve this for example worker who unable to leave. Such workers cannot easily resolve their avoidance – avoidance conflict in a time when jobs are very scarce.

**2. Inter-personal Conflict**

Besides the intra-individual aspects of conflict, the interpersonal aspects of conflict behaviour are important dynamic of interactive behaviour. This is a conflict that can arise or result when two or more persons with personality differences are interacting with one another. Two popular ways to analyse this interpersonal conflict are through transactional analysis and the Johari window.

**3. Intergroup Behaviour and Conflict**

Conceptually similar to interpersonal behaviour is intergroup behaviour. One way to look at organizations is in terms of interacting groups. Instead of depicting an organization as being made up of interacting individuals, one could think of it a consisting of interacting group. Groups in conflict have much different behaviour from that of smoothly co-operating groups.

**The Characteristics Depicting Group in Conflict**

1. There is a clear distinction and comparison between "we" (the ingroup) and "they" (the out-group)

2. A group that feels it is in conflict becomes more cohesive and pulls together to present a solid front to defeat the other group.

3. The positive feelings and cohesion within the in-group do not transfer to the members for the out-group. The members of the out-group are viewed as the enemy rather than as neutrals.

4. Threatened group members feel superior – They over-estimate their strength and under-estimate that of members of other group.

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5. The amount of communication between conflicting groups decreases. When there is communication, it is characterised by negative comments and hostility.

6. The cohesion of a group losing in a conflict deceases and the group member experience increased tension among themselves. They look for a scapegoat to blame their failure on.

**4 Organizational Conflict**

Organizational conflict is inevitable due to: (1) personality clashes and (2) incompatible pressures and influences. Each member has certain roles, objectives and responsibilities which may be frustrated by others who induce barriers and do not co-operate. More conceptually, has been suggested that there are about seven (7) recognized sources of conflicts in organizations.

**1. Competition over resources**: This is a cause of conflict difficult to avoid in organizations. This is so because at any point in time some or all of the productive resources are not likely to go round all the groups as desired. This gives rise to competition and contest for the available resources.

**2. Differences in perception**: In cohesive group, there is the possibility of members perceiving things from their groups' (selfish) perceptive.

**3. Perceived Superiority in the functional Area/Dept**: Status Differences and workflow in organizations from one section or department to another either for control purpose or as a matter of need often breed conflict in the exercise of these functions, there arise conflicts in organizations. The reason is that every group believes in the superiority of its views, ideas or positions.

**4. Conflicting Objectives**: Subsumed in the overall organizational objectives are the sub goals of the different departments and groups. These goals ought not to conflict and diametrically opposed. Unfortunately, this ideal is rarely achieved in most organizations.

**5. Personality Clash**: This is a cause of conflict that surfaced only when the conflictive situation becomes antagonistic and openly unco-operative. Differences in leadership styles, prejudices, biased attitude, belief and motivations of a group physical and functional relations are necessarily closed.

**6. Reciprocity**: One good turn deserves another is popular saying that is relevant for family, mental, personal and work group relationships. However where the relations between groups are such that one group seem to be always doing something for another group without receiving benefits in return, this gives rise to a feeling of being exploited. This feeling leads to conflict and the exploited group will be motivated to end the relationship.

**7. Ambiguous Authority and Responsibility**: This often is problematic because management may be unspecific in the assignment of authority associated with the functions delegated and where you have peer groups cooperating on a function, this leads to conflict as each of the peer-group will see ascendancy over the other.

Q. State and discuss the different conflict management strategies

**Strategies for Conflict Resolution – (Managing Conflict)**

There are different ways of managing conflict, focusing either on interpersonal relationships or on structural changes. Indeed there are many but difficult choices which depend upon

(1) Contingencies

(2) The environment

(3) The technology

(4) The needs of individuals, groups and tasks.

Two basic conflict handling behaviours have been popularized. These are

(i) Assertion

(ii) Co-Operation

**Assertion**: This is an attempt to confront the opposition hence this is basically confrontational in approach e.g. USA, Britain against Iraq.

**Cooperation**: On the other hand seek to find an agreeable solution. These conflict handing behaviours are graphically depicted below:

Q. Discuss the five (5) outcomes of handling conflict based on the matrix of Assertion and Cooperation as conflict handling behaviours.

**Conflict Handling Behaviour**

The two behavioural patterns are further classified into five outcomes:

**i. Competition**: This characterized by low cooperation and very high in assertion. The competing parties use weapons such as argument and threats to achieve their goals. This attitude can be useful when the other party is not ready to cooperate and when issued at stake it vital critical to one's survival.

**ii. Collaboration**: Involves considerable assertion and cooperation in an attempt to satisfying the need of been partners. It often called a non-zero-sum-game since both parties can win and lose at the same time.

**iii. Accommodation**: requires high cooperation and low assertion since it involves giving-in to the other party of sacrificing one's own personal needs. Accommodation is done for number reasons:

(1) The parties have no other choice

(2) When one party finds it more beneficial to give-in than to compete on certain issues.

**iv. Avoidance**: This shows little assertion and cooperation since it is on moving away from the other party or ignoring or withdrawing from the situation. This is an appropriate behaviour when the issue is trivial or when nothing can be gained by either competing or cooperating.

**v. Compromising**: Compromising requires some assertion and some cooperation since this option/behaviour search for partial satisfaction of both parties.

Q. Write brief notes on the following approach to conflict resolution

**1. Lose-Lose Strategy**: In a lose-lose approach to conflict resolution, both parties lose. This method will typically be employed where the parties are not sure of a successful outcome. Hence the approach is based on the conventional wisdom that 'half-a-loaf is better than none'. The usage of this method can however take several forms; first compromise; secondly paying off one of the parties in the conflict especially in the form of bribes. A third approach is to use an outside third

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party or arbitrator. And finally the parties can resort to bureaucratic rules or existing regulations to resolve the conflict. This strategy is sometimes the only way that conflicts can be resolved but it is less a desirable method than the other. In the final analysis, the four approaches inherent in this strategy will still be resolved but it is less a desirable method than others. In the final analysis, the four approaches inherent in this strategy will still lead to both parties in the conflict losing.

2. Win-Lose Strategy: A win-lose strategy is a common way of resolving conflict in modern society, especially in a competitive culture. One party in a conflict situation will simply attempt to marshal its forces to win, and the other party loses.

**Characteristics of a Win-Lose Situation**

The following characteristics are notable in a win-lose situation:

I. There is a clear, we-they distinction between the parties
II. The parties direct their energies toward each other in an atmosphere of victory and defeat
III. The parties see the issue from their own point of view
IV. The emphasis is to solutions rather than on the attainment of goals values of objectives
V. Conflict are personalized and self-judge-mental
VI. The parties take a short-run view of the issues.

**3. Win-Win Strategy**: A win-win strategy of conflict resolution probably the most desirable from a human and organizational standpoint. Indeed, it is generally referred to as the problem-solving method because all energies and creativities are aimed at solving the problems rather that beating the other party. This strategy takes the advantage of functional aspects of win lose and eliminates many of the dysfunctional aspects. The needs of both parties in the conflict situation are met and both parties received rewarding outcomes. A review of the relevant literature revealed that 'win-win decision strategies are associated with better judgments, favourable bargains". Although it is often difficult to accomplish a win-win outcome of an interpersonal conflict, this should be a major goal of the management of conflict.

Q. List the role of conflict in an organization

**The Role of Conflict in Today's Organizations**

By definition, conflict can be described as "the exercise of power between two or more parties (individuals or groups)"; problem solving on the other hand "is the exercise of fact of logic by parties seeking a high quality mutually acceptable solution to a problem". The existence of conflict thus gives rise to problems-solving.

Constructively used, conflict can:

i. Create a more dynamic group that is creative, solves problems more easily, make better decision and is generally more productive.

ii. Lead to innovation and changes; it can energise people to activity, develop protection for something else in the organization (in the divide and conquer sense), and be an important element in the system analysis of the organization.

Unfortunately, many adverse effects are seen:

i. Such as high mental stress

ii. Uncooperative group behaviour

iii. Misalignments of goals between the group and the organization, various stages of group disintegration, irrational and illogical conduct and communication breakdown.

Q. Explain what it means to change

**The Nature of Change**

To change, in all simplicity, is to make different or to alter, to make or oblige something to or subtraction from a thing or a state of things. Change is natural in the course of development and growth. Society is everywhere in a continual state of transition, every unit of business, even the most private enterprises, as an organ of society, is therefore continually obliged to operate under ever changing conditions and circumstances. Indeed, over a period of 20 years, it is possible for a company, even one that is not growing to experience numerous changes – in its business, product, markets, Competition, government regulation, available technologies, labour markets and its own business strategy. These changes are the inevitable products of its interaction with a world that is not static.

Q. State the forces that cause changes to happen

**External and Internal Causes of Change and Rate of Change**

Everyone today is keenly aware of and concerned about change. All organizations today are equally vibrating from forces of chance. The forces can be summarized into four (4) broad areas of technology change, the knowledge explosion, product and service obsolescence and social change.

**1. Technological Change**: Everyone is keenly aware that the rate of technology change is greater than it has ever been. It is affecting the nature of jobs at all levels and in all types of organizations.

**2. The Knowledge Explosion**: The amount of knowledge is an accelerated path. There has been a transition from an agricultural to an industrial and now to knowledge-based society especially in the advanced societies.

**3. Product and Service Obsolescence**: Although some industries worse in this respect than others, the product life cycle is getting shorter and shorter. Textile products, electronics, pharmaceutical products.

**4. Social Change**: This involves a change in social attitudes, behaviours, values and belief and composition of the people particularly as this affects their attitude to and even survive, organizations must meet the tremendous challenges presented by all the areas of change. Neither private nor public organizations can compete in today's market place by standing or going backward. This type of business change generally involves organization adjustment.

Q. Explain various approaches to introducing change and the response to change

**Approaches to Introducing Change**

Approaches to introducing change have been discussed in terms of a "power distribution" continuum.

**1. Unilateral Action**: These approaches are at one end of the continuum and are characterized by one way communication.

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**2. Power Sharing**: This approach involves interaction between those in positions of authority and those who will be affected by changes. However, the manager ultimately makes the decision of the proposed changed.

**3. Delegated Authority**: This approach to introducing actually turns over to subordinates the responsibility for defining and deciding on the change problem. This involves a manager providing information, describing change problem situation and then allow the group to resolve the problem.

Q. Discuss the strategies for dealing with response to change.

## Response to Change

Although change is taking place constantly in organizations, they do not affect every individual (member) equally. There are positive and negative responses to change and of course, response to change can also be neutral from the organizational members.

**(i) Neutral**: This response is probably most common. From behavioural point of view. It only means that one is indifferent to the change(s) taking place. It is however important to point out that when there is no response to instituted change by the management from the employees, it is indicative of a problem. Because neutral in itself is a response but signaling a potential problem which should alarm the management. It is a form of communication to the management that something is wrong. It might mean that there is a lot of apathy in the organization. The management in this circumstance should see the need to improve communication.

**(ii) Positive**: There are positive responses which signify acceptance of the change by the employees. It also signifies effective communication from the management about the change process and about the benefits of the change. Generally, it may be summarized that this response from the manager's perspective indicates that:

- response has effectively and efficiently contributed to goal accomplishment
- subordinates are co-operative, adaptive, progressive and "able to cope with change"
- those changes are favourable to the employees which may translate to more pay, benefits and promotion

**(iii) Negative**: Negative response to change tells the management that the change is not wholly or partly acceptable and this can lead to sabotage of the management effort. Technically, it means the employees are resistance to the change and this can be very destructive. This response to change by employees is viewed by managers as:

i. dysfunctional to goal achievement

ii. as employees being stubborn, uncooperative and unable to cope with change.

## Implications of Resistance to Change

The natural inclination of most people is to change because it upsets their way of doing things and threatens their security. Indeed, managers have always viewed subordinates as constantly resisting change especially resistance to change is a serious problem for managers. However, managers should not always see resistance to change as something to be overcome. Rather resistance should be regarded as a sign that something is wrong. Resistance to change is neither always good nor bad.

Generally speaking, resistance to change has implications. This includes:

i. Resistance can be very disruptive to work performance.

ii. There may be sabotage i.e. destruction of property by discontented workmen.

iii. Resistance may also be a signal on the need to improve communication by managers about purpose and the specifics of change desired.

iv. Resistance to change can reveal the need for a better approach for introducing and implementing change.

v. It can equally suggest the need for more realistic timing.

vi. Resistance can also reveal the inadequacy of current procedure for anticipating changes.

Q. Management should not see resistance to change as something to overcome. How should management respond to resistance to change?

**Strategies for Responding to External Challenges for Change**

Research evidences have provided enough support to the argument that organizations by their nature will resist change in the form of challenge from an external force. However, the organization resistance will always follow a pattern of response strategies or tactics such as:

**1. The first major strategy was complete resistance to change.**

This strategy involved several tactics:

a. Ignoring the challenge

b. Repressing the challenge by discrediting it and the people prompting the challenge

c. By issuing counter charges

d. It may involve disclaiming responsibility for issues involved and then transferring the responsibility to someone else.

**2. The second major strategy was compromise**.

Essentially, this strategy involves:

a. Offers of counter inducement to the promoter(s) of the challenge, and more specifically, the following tactics may be used:

i. Offering positive inducement rather than confrontation

ii. Applying negative inducement such as threats, warnings or trying to gain allies

iii. Threatening to cease operation of the challenge of the challenge is not removed or modified.

3. When the two above strategies however fails, an organization can then adopt the third strategy called **capitulation**. This amounts to a tactical surrender or backing down on the change situation. When an organization finds itself in a 'no win situation', then it can work out a favourable deal.

**Managing Resistance to Change**

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A reduction of resistance can be achieved in many different ways. The following are conditions or steps however involved.

1. The objectives for and the purpose of the intended change must be clear.

2. Staff should be involved in the planning of the change, there must be analyses for staff air their views and their resistances.

3. Communication about the proposed change also helps to clarify the reasons or effects of the change.

4. Group patterns or habits must be identifies and catered for.

5. Retraining programmes must be supportive: threats to status, grade and security must be minimized.

6. Plans must be sufficiently in advance of implementation and thorough in conception to avoid unnecessary pressures and anxieties.

7. The changes must be seen to have advantages over the old method.

8. The initiators must be respected and trusted.

Q. Define power and explain three (3) bases of power that a leader can have.

**The Definition of Power**

Power has been defined the ability to employ force and the production of intended effects. Power is well described as a leader's Influence Potential. It is the resource that enables a leader to induce compliance from or influence other. Hence power is a force which one can use to obtain compliance. Power is when "(Mr.) A has power over (Mr.) B to the extent that A can get B to do something that B would otherwise not do. Power has also been broadly defined as "The maximum ability of a person of group to induce or influence other individuals or groups and bring about some degree of change in their behaviour. ROGERS attempt to clear up the terminological confusion by defining power as "The potentials for influence''.

**The Bases of Power**

**1. Coercive Power**

This source of power depends on fear. The person with coercive power has the ability to inflict punishment on the other person or at least, to make threats that the other person will result in punishment or undesirable outcomes. This form of power has contributed greatly to the negative connotation that power has for laypersons. Although coercive power is most commonly thought of in terms of physical force or perhaps the use of a weapon, it can also bring about reliance upon physical strength, verbal facility or the ability to grant or withhold emotional support from others. These bases provide the individual with the means to physically harm, bully, humiliate or deny love to others.

**2. Expert Power**

This is based on the leader's possession of expertise, skill, and knowledge or understanding only in certain well defined areas, which, through respect, influence others. A leader high in expert power is seen as possessing the expertise to facilitate the work behaviour of others. This respect leads to compliance with the leader's wishes put in other words, others must perceive the power holder to be credible trustworthy and relevant before expert power is granted or recognised.

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**3. Legitimate Power**

This is power based on the position held by the leader. Normally, the higher the position, the higher the legitimate power tends to be. A leader high in legitimate power induces compliance or influences other because they feel that this person has the right, by virtue of his position in the organization, to expect that his suggestions will be followed. This shows that unlike reward and coercive power which depend on the relationships with others, legitimate power depends on the position or role that the person holds.

**4. Referent Power**

This source or basis of power is based on the leader's trait (characteristic). A leader high in referent power is generally liked and admired by others because of personality. This liking of, admiration for, and identification with the leader influences others. Advertisers take advantage of this type of power when they use celebrities, such as movie stars or sport figures, to do testimonial advertising. The buying public identifies with (finds attractive) certain famous people and grants them power to tell them what product to buy. Timing is an interesting aspect of the testimonial advertising type of referent power.

**5. Reward Power**

This source of power depends on the person's having the ability and resources to reward others. In addition, they target of this power must value these rewards. In an organizational context, managers have many potential rewards such as pay increases, new equipment, promotions, favourable work assignments, more responsibility, praise, feedback and recognition available to them.

**6. Information Power**

This is based on the leader's possession of or access to information that is perceived as valuable by others. This power based influences others because they need this information or want to be in on things.

**7. Connection Power**

This basis of power is based on the leader's "connections" with influential or important persons inside or outside the organization. A leader high in connection power induces compliance from others because they aim at gaining the favour or avoiding the disfavour of powerful connection.

Q. State the cost of using power.

**Cost of Using Power**

It is important to consider the cost involved in attempting to use a resource to influence another person's behaviour. Sometimes, the cost will be so high that the user of the power will prefer to abandon its use. This is an ideal situation. Nevertheless, it is wiser to use power when the cost of using such power is very low.

For instance, a manager who has the power to terminate the employment will in doing so, consider the cost of hiring a substitute with its attendance recruitment difficulty. On the other hand, the risk of being perceived by other employees as wicked and unjust is also costly. Therefore the more costly it is to use a resource, the less power are held over another person.

Q. How would you define the term power bloc? Identify and discuss the different power blocs available in your present organization.

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## Power Blocs

Power blocs (also called potential influences) simply refer to those that possess certain qualities strong enough to influence an organization's decision. Some of these power blocs are identified and discussed as follows:

**1. Board of Director**: They are the governing council of the organization and most decision often originates from this body.

**2. Management**: They day to day running of the organization is vested in the management. In this sense, management is rewarded as a powerful organizational position, that is, individuals who have authority and responsibility in getting thing done. Such individual (e.g. functional managers) enjoy the power of employment. By the virtue of their position they influenced the employees and consequently become a recognizable bloc within the organization.

**3. The Employees**: They are responsible for the operational and administrative work of an organization. Some of these employees exert expert and information power on members of the organization; hence they are accorded some respect.

**4. Labour Union**: Workers do come together under the umbrella of a union, to exercise their right within the organization. In other words, the function of mediating and bargaining between the worker and management are left for the union to handle. This has made the union a powerful bloc within an organization (i.e. unionized organization) because they can use all available weapons (e.g. demonstration, go slow, slow-down, overtime ban, sit-in work-in or the strike) at their disposal to influence the management decision.

**5. Government**: Although this is an external power bloc, it influences the organization. Climate may not be over locked. For instance, they government seldom fix minimum and maximum wage which companies should pay their employees and at times they fix an operational budget which a company should use in a financial year. In summary, they concept of power control is very important toward organizational development. Hence its inclusion in the study of organizational behaviour is to say the least appropriate.

Q. What is Leadership?

## Meaning of Leadership

Leadership has been defined as the process of influencing the activities of an individual or a group in efforts toward goal accomplishment in a given situation or a group in efforts toward goal simply any attempt to influence

Q. What is Authority?

## Meaning of Authority

Authority is a form of power or influence that is sometimes defined as the supreme coordinating power. It is the power to perform responsibility, the right to take action or to direct others to do so. This gives managers the power to direct and enlist the cooperation of subordinates and to achieve the coordination of their efforts. Authority is a particular type of power which has its origin in the position that a leader occupies. Thus, authority is the power that is legitimatized by virtue of an individual's formal role in a social organization.

Q. Explain different perspectives as to the meaning of status

## The Meaning of Status

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Status is another characteristic of individual which affects behavior. In a social system, status cannot and must not be ignored because of its importance to most people. In this context, it is common to see people with high status act differently from people with low status. As a concept, status is defined as the social rank of a person in relation to other people in a social system. Psychologists described status as the rank we confer on a person according to our perception of him. Status is therefore a product of social interaction and no one is assumed to have it unless it is conferred on him by that interaction. While status defines who a person is. Status can either be Formal or Informal; it is formal when the rank is designated by the authority structure of the organization and it is informal when it is accorded to people because of feeling towards them. It must also be pointed out that key elements in status are ranking and comparison. Individuals are bound together in status system or status hierarchies which defined their rank in relation or relative to other within the system. Simply put therefore, status is the worth of an individual as estimated by a group or class of persons.

Q. State the different sources of status.

**Sources of Status**

There are basically two main sources of status: the social system based on value perception and the organization. Status is commonly conferred on people by the social system based on some factors such as wealth, occupation, culture, personal achievement, education, family background, etc.

**i. Occupation**: This confers status in two ways. Whatever we do to bring progress to others bring status and places one in a social class.

**ii. Wealth**: Society gives status to individual through the organization of wealth principally because of the reward and the cost invested in sharing his wealth to others. E.g. a philanthropist.

**iii. Culture**: A chief, elders, priests are given status from the community either because of hard work, old age or environmental demand.

**iv. Personal Achievement**: Here, the concept of "self-made man" plays an important role. Military generally, scientist managers, sports figure acquire celebrity status because of personal achievement can bring lasting recognition and prestige.

**v. Education**: In modern industrial society, individual who lacks the expected educational qualifications is almost ineligible. The amount of formal education an individual can obtain will affects his occupation. Income level, reputation etc.

**vi. Family Background**: The achievements and status of one's parents and grandparent also contribute to a great deal in giving high status to people from that family.

**vii. Leisure time**: The way people spend their leisure time gives them status. This can arise from being a member of a social club such as the rotary, inner wheel, oriental, Tennis club etc. These clubs are actually for the opulence and those who cannot reach this height often place them in high esteem.

**Status Comparison and Reactions to Comparison**

Status comparison refers to act of ranking others and comparing ourselves to such rank people. It can also be used to measure the values or worth of one's status among others. It is a truism that characteristically, high status people:

i. enjoy more power and influence

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ii. receive more privileges from their group

iii. tend to participate more in significant group activities

iv. tend to interact more with their peers than with those of lower rank.

v have opportunity to play a more important role in an organization.

As a result, lower status members tend to feel isolated from the mainstream and show more stress symptoms than higher ranked members.

This comparison in status can be viewed from two major perspectives namely:

**i. Distributive Justice**

This (also called natural justice) is the perception that person's outcome is directly proportional to the effort and costs he has invested. This is sometimes measure by comparing oneself with others on the same outcome, based on the amount of investments (or efforts).

Hence, distributive justice is said to be at play if the outcome of certain set of members in a group is higher because they have invested more (in terms of efforts) in the course of their jobs. On the other hand, it is injustice if somebody's income is higher because he/she is the favourite of the CEO and not necessarily due to hard work.

**ii. Status congruence**

Congruence implies that all the characteristics and attribute of a person are greater than, equal to or lower than the corresponding attributes of a person with whom he can be compared. Thus, the manager as compared with the assistant manager must have a higher income, a bigger office, more clerical staff and better experience. In other words, the manager is said to enjoy benefit/outcomes congruent/equal to/ with his status. Example of in congruence is: supervisors earning less than their subordinates.

Q. Explain in clear terms the concept of occupational prestige to bring out its importance.

**Occupational Prestige**

The relationship between status, occupational prestige and job satisfaction cannot be over-emphasized. Occupation prestige is the importance attached to a profession based on the quality and length of training required of such occupation. It is specially related to a person's education and income. For example in modern industrial society, a person prepares himself for occupational life by obtaining an education, which in turn, prepares him for a more significant occupational role. This is further rewarded with more economic (income) and social status. The point therefore is that people tend to be assigned to a class status according to their occupations.

Occupational prestige hence becomes one of the most basic systems of stratification in modern societies. A skilled occupation for instance enjoys high status more than non-skilled occupations. Even among the skilled occupations, workers in the oil and banking industries enjoy more prestige than their counterparts in teaching profession.

The importance of occupational prestige can therefore be enumerated as follows:

i. It helps a counselor to diagnose status problems and conflicts

ii. It influences the kinds of promotion and transfer an employee will take.

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iii. It helps to determine who will be the informal leader of a group composed of different occupations.

iv. It enables "status seekers" to qualify themselves for high status jobs so that they can become better adjusted.

v. It serves as a motivator to those seeking to advancement in the organization.

Q. Define job satisfaction and enumerate its importance

**Job Satisfaction**

Job satisfaction refers to the contentment experienced when a want is satisfied. Technically speaking, job satisfaction is the difference between the amount of some valued outcome a person receives and the concept that create a feeling of enthusiasm and happiness during and after working hours. Indeed, the usefulness of job satisfaction to the social interaction (which in turn gives rise to status) can be summarized as follows:

**The Usefulness of Job Satisfaction**

i. It gives management an indication of the general levels of satisfaction in a company

ii. It reduces turnover, absenteeism and consequently high productivity.

iii. It gives the staff a feeling of belongingness.

iv. Job satisfaction affects the employee's life outside the job.

v. It ensures valuable communication from or in all directions.

Q. Define perception

**The Meaning of Perception**

Perception is often defined as 'the process of actively selecting, organizing and interpreting information brought to us by our senses in order to understand the complex world around us.' Perception "translates" (or processes) the stimuli (situations) received by the senses into impressions (pictures) of the world. Although perception is a very private process, in almost all situations, our behaviour is strongly determined by the process of perception, and the interpretation of physical of social reality it yields.

Perception plays a key role in human behaviour. Generally speaking, people behave according to what they believe they see, not the "objective reality". Indeed, how people act is often largely a function of how they interpret their current surroundings, both physical and social. Even when exposed to the same situation, information or events, different persons often report sharply contrasting reactions through an active complex process. This is known as perception.

Q. List and discuss the principles of perceptual selectivity

**The Principles of Perceptual Selectivity**

Perceptual selectivity is a discussion that is concerned with how and why people select out only a very few stimuli at a given time in the face of numerous inputs/stimuli that floods us from our senses. It is essentially a study of the external variables that gain an individual attention.

**A. Attention**

Attention is probably the crucial first step in perception. Unless a stimulus (situation) is noticed, it cannot be perceived and interpreted. Thus, attention acts as a kind of filter with respect to perception such that only what passes through our notice can have any impact on our interpretation of the world around us. In many cases, stimuli (situations) that succeed in capturing our attention tend to be viewed as more important than ones that do not.

For example, people noticed most in a group tend to be viewed as being the most influential and therefore, as the most capable of leadership various external and internal attention factors affect perceptual selectivity. The external factors consist of outside environmental influences such as intensity, size, contrast, repetition, motion, and novelty and familiarity.

**1. Intensity**: The intensity principle of attention states that the more intense the external stimulus, the more likely it is to perceive a loud noise, strong odour, or bright light will be noticed more than a soft sound, weak odour, or dim light. Advertisers use intensity to gain the consumer's attention for example a bright packaging and television commercials that are slightly louder than the regular programme. Similarly supervisors may yell (shout) at their subordinates to gain attention.

**2. Size**: This principle says that the larger the objects, the more likely it will be perceived. For example, the maintenance engineering staff may pay more attention to a big machine than to a smaller one even though the smaller one cost as much and is as important to the operation. In advertising, a full-page spread (in a newspaper) is more attention getting than a few lines in the classified section.

**3. Contrast**: The contrast principles states that external stimuli which stand out against the background or against what people are expecting will receive signs which have block lettering on a yellow background or white lettering on a red background are attention getting similarly, a worker with many years of experience hardly notices the deafening noise on the factory floor of a typical manufacturing operation.

**4. Repetition**: The repetition principle states that a repeated external stimulus is more attention setting than a single one. The explanation is that "a stimulus that is repeated has a better chance of catching us during one of the periods when our attention to a task is waning. In addition, repetition increases our sensitivity or alertness to the stimulus".

**5. Motion**: The motion principle says that people will pay more attention to moving objects in their field of vision than they will to stationary objects. Workers will notice materials moving by them on a conveyor belt but they may fail to give proper attention to the maintenance needs of the stationary machine next to them.

**6. Novelty and Familiarity**: The novelty and familiarity principles states that either a novel or a familiar external situation can serve as an attention getter. Now objects or events in a familiar setting or events in a new setting will draw the attention of the perceiver. Switching from a typewriter to a word processor may not motivate the clerical staff but it will increase their attention until they become accustomed to the new job.

**B. The Motivational Factors**

This can be thought of as an internal form of attention getting that is largely based on the individual's complex psychological makeup. People will select stimuli or situations from the environment that appeal to them, and such personal influences on attention include motives, attitudes and past experience.

**1. Motives**: One personal factor that strongly affects our immediate surroundings is our current motives. The impact of this internal state can be readily illustrated: Assuming you are in a business meeting, what stimuli or events you notice will to a large extent depend on your current motivational state.

**2. Attitudes**: A second personal factor that often exerts a strong impact upon attention is our attitudes or values. Typically, we notice stimuli about which we have clear positive or negative feelings (strong attitudes) much more readily than ones toward which we are neutral. Thus, an individual who is strongly opposed to some plan of actions (e.g. actualization of 1993, June 12 election results) would be highly sensitive to even indirect references to it during a meeting.

**3. Past Experience**: The selective nature of perception is often affected by our past experience. We tend to notice those aspects of the world around us that are familiar, or fit with cognitive frameworks established through past experience. Unfortunately, such difference in perspective can sometimes lead to major problems of communication.

Q. The social aspect of perception has important roles in organizational behaviour. Comment on these roles.

**Social Perception**

The social aspect of perception has important role in organizational behaviour, social perception is directly concerned with how one individual perceive other individuals. Briefly, it is an active attempt we make to combine, integrate and interpret information about other persons and in this way, to form useful "picture" of them a basic grasp of what they are like and what essentially makes them what they are. However since human beings are extremely complex social perception too, is a complicated affair.

**Characteristics of Perceiver and Perceived**

Characteristics of the perceiver reveal a profile of the perceived as follows:

1. Knowing oneself makes it easier to see others accurately

2. One's own characteristics affect the characteristics one is likely to see in others.

3. People who accept themselves are more likely to be able see favourable aspects of other people.

4. Accuracy in perceiving others is not a single skill.

Research has also revealed certain characteristics of the person being perceived as follows:

1. The status of the person being perceived will greatly influence others perception of the person.

2. The person being perceived is usually placed into categories to simplify the viewer's perceptual activities. Two common categories are status and role.

3. The visible traits of the person perceived will greatly influence the perception of the person.

Q. Explain the issues influencing in social perception.

**1. Attribution**

Attribution simply refers to how a person explains the cause of another's or of his or her own behaviour. In our efforts to understand other persons, we actually focus on several different

issues. Two of the most important of these involve attempts on our part to identify their major traits or characteristics and efforts to determine whether their actions stem mainly from internal or external causes. Therefore applied to social perception, attribution – is the search for causes (attributions) in making interpretations of other persons or of oneself behaviours.

**2. Stereotyping**

This is another important area of social perception that is particularly relevant to the understanding of organizational behaviour, because it is one of the "common errors" or problems that creep into social perception. The term stereotype refers to the tendency to perceive another person (hence social perception) as belonging to a single or category. In other words stereotypes means beliefs suggesting that all members of a particular group (e.g. a racial, ethic, occupational, religious or political) share the same traits and behaviours.

**3. The halo effect**

This is another common error in perception and is very similar to stereotyping. Whereas in stereotyping the person is perceived according to a single category or group but under the halo effect, there is a tendency for our overall impressions of others (blanket perception) to affect our evaluations of their specific traits or behaviours. Such effect can be positive (a favourable halo) or negative (a rusty halo in nature). Halo is often discussed in performance appraisal when a rater makes an error in judging a person's total personality and/or performance on the basis of a single trait such as intelligence, appearance, dependability or cooperativeness whatever the single trait is, it may override all other traits or characteristics in forming the perception of the person. Examples of the halo effect are the extremely beautiful woman secretary who is perceived by her male boss as being an intelligent, good performer, when, in fact, she is a poor typist and quite dense.

There are three (3) conditions under which the halo effect is most marked:

i. When the traits to be perceived are unclear in behavioural expressions.

ii. When the traits are not frequently encountered by the perceiver.

iii. When the traits have moral implications

Q. Explain the meaning of the term personality

**Meaning of Personality**

The word personality is derived from the word person meaning mask. It has been defined differently by different psychologist. Some see it as the psychological qualities of a person or the qualities of a person by which his presence is felt anywhere. It has also been defined as the outstanding qualities of a person or the impression we hold about a person. Summarily, therefore, personality represents the phenotype in an expression the genotype essence of man, that part of him that is most representative. It is therefore regarded as consisting relatively long lasting behaviour patterns that yield fairly consistent reactions to different – situations e.g. if an individual is aggressive or authoritarian, we may on the long run find out that he is kind and which may turn out to be the most representation of him and which differentiated him from other people.

Q. Clearly highlight and discuss each determinant factors of personality

**Determination of Personality**

**(A) Inherited Body Constitution**

It has been urged and tested that certain ongoing biological processes in the body account for personality. This is why in treating a psychiatric patient (megalomania or psychic maladjustment), it is first established whether or not there have been an organic damage. Many studies have been taken also to test that certain genes contribute to the development illness in people. Someone like Williams Sheldod has used the physical appearance of people to determine their personality types like endomorphic and ectomorphic personality.

**(B) Social or Cultural Determinant**

It emphasizes the role of the social environment especially with respect to individual's experiences as members of a culture. Culture is a total way of life of people (repertoire) which is shared and transmitted from generation to generation through the process of socialization. For a society to function properly there must be a shared pattern of behaviour which determines that you expect of people and what people and what people expect of you. Each member gets socialized into those social behaviours and which in turn mould an individual.

**(C) Role Determinant**

Sociologist define role as the behaviour that is associated with a social status position. We as human beings have our roles to perform for a number of reasons. In certain cases the culture defines individual role. So because we are males or females we have certain roles called sex roles. As fathers or mothers we have parental role as defined by the culture. For example, In Nigeria men are domineering. In the USA women are domineering.

**(D) Situational Determinant**

This suggests that the situation in which a person is placed makes an input on the personality. This is what Kurt Lewin calls Eco behaviour. That environment is a source of input for personality output. In order words, the personality is an expression of the interaction between environment and the individual.

Q. Explain the two dimensional theories of personality using a well illustrated diagram.

**Theories of Personality Development**

**1. Psycho-Analytical Theory**: Psycho-analytical theory implies the analysis of the psycho (inner self). Sigmund Freud was the founder and dominant figure of the psycho-analytical school of thought. The theory is anchored on two (2) premises:

a. One is that adult problems have their roots causes in childhood experiences.

b. That all mental problems are personality problems and they are rooted in childhood experience.

Sigmund Freud argued that the personality is made up of three units:

i. Id : (seeks for pleasure at all time)

ii. Super-ego

iii. Ego

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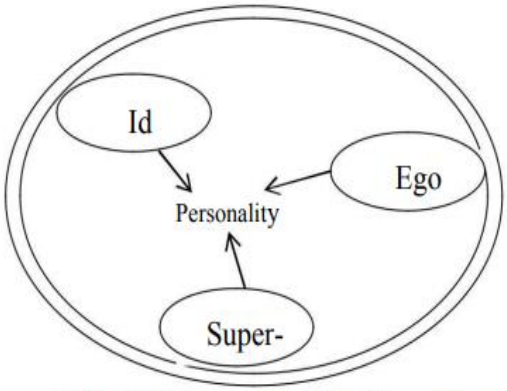



**Fig. 4.1: Sigmund Freud Compartmentalization of Personality**

a) The 'Id' is the unit that contains an individual's basic desires. It is an instinctual irrational energy that is present at birth. It functions by seeking pleasure irrespective of who is hurt.

b) The 'super-ego' opposes the 'Id'. It can be equated to conscience. It represents the age of recognition of moral laws and constraints within the society as interpreted to him by the parents and enforced by a system of reward and punishment. The unit tries to place restriction on pleasure seeking by the children and helped him to imbibe the culture of discipline, good behaviour and other good attitudes etc.

c) The 'ego' is a controlling unit. It is reality principle which helps the child to be aware of the world around him. It deals with both the aggressive desires of the Id and the repressive forces of the super-ego.

**2. Trait Theory of Personality**

A trait is a single component of personality and the trait theory is anchored on the premise that a combination of trait constitutes a personality type. A major figure in the trait school was "Eysenck" who proposed a two dimensional theory of personality. He argued that many important aspects of personalities could be understood through a combination of two dimensions namely:

**1. Stable (normal) vs. unstable (abnormal)**

**At the stable (normal) end** are those whose emotions are controlled and not easily aroused. They are generally kind, reliable and easy tempered (have emotional stability). **At the unstable or abnormal end** are those who are moody, touchy, and anxious i.e. easily aroused.

**2. Introverted vs. extroverted**

**The introvert** tends to withdraw to himself in times of emotional distress or conflict. He is shy, timid and prefers to work alone. **The extrovert** by contrast loses himself among people when he is under stress. He tends to be sociable and social, and he may be involved in such occupations as sales promotion and public relations job.

Eysenck argued that if we divide the two dimensions at the mid-point of distribution four personality types emerge namely:

1. Stable introvert (phlegmatic) = passive, careful, thoughtful, calm, religious.

2. Unstable introvert (melancholic) = too quiet, unsociable, reserved, pessimistic.

3. Stable extrovert (sanguine) = lively, careful, easy going, responsive, outgoing.

4. Unstable extrovert (choleric) = tough, restless, aggressive, excitable, changeable, impulsive.

Q. Explain the meaning of a work group

**The Meaning of a Work Group**

A work group is a set of two or more people who see themselves as a group and are interdependent with one another for a purpose, and communicate and interact with one another on a more or less continuing basis. In many cases (but not always), they work closely together physically. The essential feature of a group is that its members regard themselves as belonging to the group. Although there is no single, accepted definition, most people will readily understand what constitutes a group. A popular definition by Schein (1988), regards the group in psychological terms as any number of people who interact with one another, are psychologically aware of one another and perceive themselves to be a group.

A group is more than a collection of individuals; rather, through their interactions, new forms and new properties are created that need to be identified and studied in themselves. The goals may pertain to specific tasks, but it may also mean that the people share some common concerns, values, or ideology. Thus, group members are attracted to each other by some social bonds.

**The Characteristics of Groups**

1. One obvious characteristic of a group is that it is composed of two or more individuals engaged in social interaction.

2. Group must also have some structure i.e. some stable pattern of relationships between members.

3. A third characteristic of social group is that they share common goals groups from for some reasons their members come together to achieve some goals that they unifying interest that helps sustain the group.

4. A good characteristic of group is that their members perceived themselves as a group.

5. A group structure is determined, impart, by cohesiveness i.e. – the present member faced to remain in their group.

6. Group members recognized each other and are able to differentiate who is and who is not part of the group.

**The Types of Groups**

There are numerous types of groups. There are small and large groups, primary and secondary groups, membership and reference groups, in and out groups and formal and informal groups. Each type has different characteristics and different effects on its members.

**I. Primary Groups**

According to Charles H. Cooley, primary groups are those characterized by intimate face-to-face association and cooperation. They are primary in several senses, but chiefly, in that they are fundamental in forming the social nature and ideas of the individuals. Often, the terms Small group and Primary group are used interchangeable. Technically, there is a difference. A small

group has to meet only criterions the assign precise numbers, but the accepted criterion of small size.

### II. Membership Groups

Membership groups are those to which the individual actually belongs, while reference group is one with which the individual identifies or to which he would like to belong. The in-group represents a christening of individuals holding prevailing values in a society or at least having a dominate place in social functioning. The out- groups are the conglomerated looked upon as subordinated or marginal in the culture.

### III. Formal groups

Formal groups are created (usually by managers), to fulfill specific tasks clearly related to the enterprise's purpose. They can be permanent like departments in an organization, or temporary, like committees or task forces, which are often formed to achieve a purpose and then disband. Two very common examples of formally designated groups in modern organization are the command and task group.

### The Types of Information Group (or Cliques)

**1. The horizontal clique** i.e. a group of people who work in the same area and are of the same rank and status for example, all supervisors.

**2. The vertical clique** is a group of people of different rank and status within the same department for examples lecturers starting from Asst. lecturer to a chief lecturer.

**3. The mixed clique** is a group of people of different rank and status from different departments in different locations e.g. NASUP.

Q. What are the functions of a work group?

### The Purpose of a Group

#### 1. Social and Affiliation Needs

Groups serve as the primary mechanism for fulfilling social need (Maslow) and affiliation need (McClelland) through friendship and support. The work group is the most likely place to find understanding, companionship and comradeship at work. Job problems can be discussed with group members and this often applies to personal problems as well. So employees join work groups and work at being accepted in order to satisfy their need for affiliation (social need).

#### 2. Identity, Recognition and Esteem (Ego) Needs

The second reason people become involve in work groups is that the group can provide the recognition-ego (esteem) needs described by Maslow. It can also make a significant input to a person's identity development because a major part of the identity of those for whom work is important comes from the workplace. Indeed most middle class and upper-class.

#### 3. Security and Power Needs

Groups can help employees satisfy their security needs (Maslow) or their need or power (McClelland). If a group supports an employee against "arbitrary" demands by outsiders (other groups, managers, clients), it gives that employee more control over his or her destiny. It gives the employee a sense of power and therefore dignity. The evidence is fairly strong that most

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employees join unions to protect themselves against what they perceive to be arbitrary acts by supervisors or superiors.

**4. Other Needs**

Groups serve a series of other purposes in addition to those just discussed. One is to help establish and stabilize perceptions of the workplace. Another benefit of groups is that they promote communication.

**(a) Socialization of New Employees**: Sociologists described the process of orientating new employees as socialization. By this they mean teaching the new employee the work norms, that is, how to behave at work. In some cases, group "slows down" employees who are "working too hard" and showing up other members; So is the opposite also. If an employee is not working hard enough, the group pressures him or her to "get inline".

**(b) Getting the Job Done**: Although theoretically the enterprise is responsible for training the new employee and getting the work done, this (task is often accomplished by the work group. Usually the new employee gets some training on how to do the job, but this is rarely enough to get the job done well. The work group really teaches the employee how t cope with the job, how to handle the numerous techniques taught in the training programme that are needed to get the job done.

**(c) Decision Making**: In addition, groups are used for decision making, negotiating and bargaining thus, group members with diverse backgrounds may bring different perspectives to the decision-making process. Hence some decisions turn out better when several people make them jointly than if one person makes them alone.

Q. Groups are pertinent to organizational performance. List and explain in detail, the stages in group formation towards achieving high performance.

**Stages of Group Formation**

**Stage 1**

**Initial formation (Forming stage):** A number of people with the abilities necessary to achieve an organizational goal are assembled and assigned a tasked. At this stage of development, it is important that individuals recognize the social need to belong to the group and that they are willing to give and receive friendship and other marks of affiliation for it is in their self-interest to do so.

**Stage 2**

**Development of goals (Storming stage):** At this stage, the group seeks to establish common task goals. To the extent that these goals are clearly understood, generally agreed on and relevant to the needs of individuals, they are more likely to be achieved.

**Stage 3**

**Elaboration of structure (Norming stage):** At this stage, coordination becomes paramount. Formal leaders are appointed by management and communication in encouraged in an attempt to re-enforce the structure.

**Stage 4**

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**Development of leaders (Performing stage):** To supplement the formal leadership of the supervisor (boss or company executive), informal leaders develop. These are the people group member turn to when they encounter problems. Leadership studies have identified at least two leaders of work groups: the task leader (usually the formally appointed leader), who pays primary attention to formal goal achievement and the social leaders (informal leader) who provides "social maintenance".

## Group Dynamics

An Effective Work Group is one whose members function as a team and participate fully in group discussions, whose goals are clearly developed, and whose resources are adequate to accomplish its goals.

The following factors can influence group effectiveness.

### 1. Size of Group

The effective group is relatively small. Theoretically, as a group gets larger it could become more effective, this is because the potential for greater variety of talents is greater. Members have a better chance of finding people they like to work with. But the disadvantages of such a large size far outweigh its advantages. For example, more efforts must be used to get the group to function; splinter groups may form; larger groups take longer to function and may not be able to function at all. Yet again, as the group gets larger, it becomes less efficient, since most members of necessity participate less. Thus, size is an important variable in group effectiveness. This is because inter-person relationship is more frequent and it tends to be faced affairs.

### 2. Eye Contact and Location of Members

Group whose members are located close together and can interact frequently and easily, are likely to be more cohesive and effective than those whose members are separated by greater distance. Eye movements, direction of gaze and mutual eye contact are important nonverbal interactions that influence group effectiveness. The easier it is to communicate in person the more likely the group is to be cohesive.

### 3. Nature of Task

Homogeneous group (those whose members are alike in age, education, status, and experience) are better when the task or goal requires mutual cooperation and conflict-free behaviour and if the task is simple. Heterogeneous groups are more effective where the task is complex, if speed is not important and if creativity is desirable.

### 4. Cohesiveness

Group cohesiveness is the degree to which group members are of one mind and thus can act as one body. Sometimes cohesiveness is thought of as group loyalty, solidarity or pride. Cohesiveness results from homogeneity of membership, stability of members over time and high status. In general cohesive groups are more effective.

### 5. Group Norms

Group norms are shared values about the kind of behaviours that are acceptable and unacceptable as work. They develop over time and are re-enforced by group pressures or the members to conform. Norms can affect performance positively or negatively. The effects of norms on productivity or performance are affected by cohesiveness. In general, if the group is very

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cohesive and performance (or high productivity) is a group norm, performance will be high. If the group is less cohesive, the norms will be less powerful.

Q. Explain what communication means

**Defining Communication as a Concept**

Communication is the means by which social inputs are fed into the social system. In its broadest sense, the purpose of communication in an enterprise is to effect change that is, to influence action toward the welfare to the enterprise. Communication is essential for the internal functioning of enterprises because it integrates the managerial functions. Communication is fundamental to good management. Indeed, communication should be seen as a purposeful business activity to enable the organization to achieve its objectives smoothly and the individuals who work for it to give their best work to the organization. Managers as involve in two kinds of communication which are interpersonal and organizational.

**1. Interpersonal Communication**: This is the process of exchanging information and transmitting meaning between two people or in a small group of people.

**Organizational Communication**: This is the process by which managers develop a system to give information and transmit meaning to large numbers people within the organization and to relevant individuals and institutions outside it. In brief, communication is defined as the transfer of information from the sender to the receiver, with the information being understood by the receiver.

Q. Describe communication process model

**Communication Process Model**

A model of the communication process is the basis framework for understanding what steps are involved in communication. Communication begins when two conditions exist:

(i) Some individual or group as an idea or concept

(ii) This person or group wishes to make such information know to someone

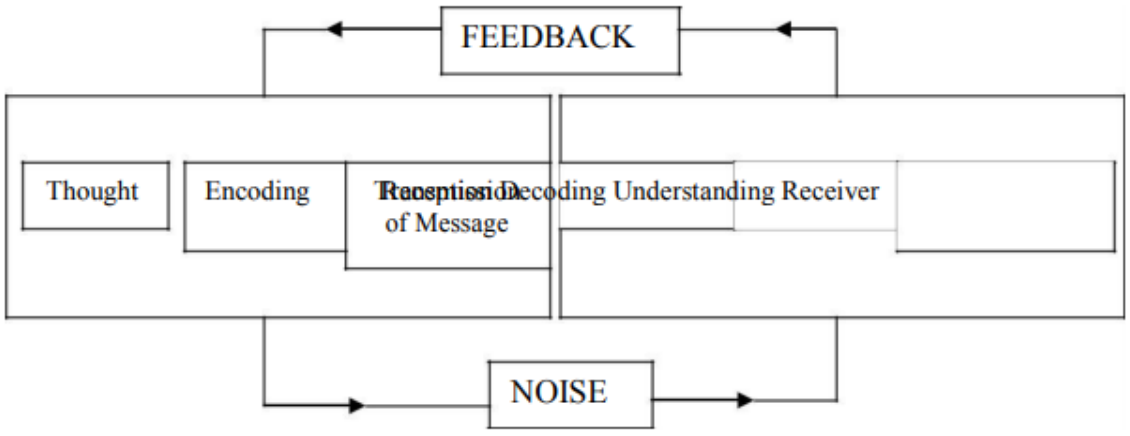



**Fig.3.1: Communication Process Model**

The model first showed that in an organization, specific person may wish others to influence them, to assist them with their work, to obtain input they need for performing their own jobs, to affect decisions, to correct others past mistakes to dazzle or impress them with their vast

knowledge. In any case, the first thing or step to step is that the sender has the idea or concept (thinking) for the massage: its purpose-Then he or she encodes the massage into the form in which it will be transmitted i.e. words, body movements, writing, even facial expression or observation actions that convey a specific meaning. The massage is transmitted verbally by a medium (in person, on the phone) or in writing, and then informal. Thus the sender has completed the initial phase of communication.

The receiver has to be ready for the massage so that it can be decoded into thought. A person thinking about an exciting football game may pay insufficient attention to what is being said. Hence the receiver must first perceive the massage; see it or hear it with the senses. Then he or she decodes it and this involves "translation" the massage into terms that have meaning for the receiver. Thus comes understanding of course there is important element to consider feedback. This is when the receiver reverses the process and transmits back to the original sender.

Such feedback is an essential part of communication in many settings. It is especially valuable in organizations where communication seems to flow downward from supervisors and managers to subordinates. Providing such persons with an opportunity to offer feedback yields several benefits.

**The Function of Communication in an Organization**

Communication is essential for the internal functioning of enterprises because it integrates the managerial functions. Especially, communication is needed to:

(i) establish and disseminate goals of an enterprise

(ii) organize human and other resources in the most effective and efficient way

(iii) help personal relation since communication is the chief means by which organization members work together

(iv) also helps to hold the organization together by making it possible for members for influence and another and to react to one another

(v) needed for the manager's function of planning, organizing, leading and controlling to be accomplished. The process of communication therefore makes it possible for managers to carry out their responsibilities.

Q. List and explain factors that give to communication breakdown in an organization

**Barriers and Breakdown in Communication**

Barriers can exist in the sender, in the transmission of the message, in the receiver or the feedback. The principal barriers to communication include the following:

**1. Lack of planning**: Good communication seldom happens by chance, too often people start talking and writing without first thinking, planning and stating the purpose of the message.

**2. Semantic distortion**: Another barrier to effective communication can be attributed to semantic distortion, which can be deliberate or accidental. An advertisement saying "we sell for less" is deliberately ambiguous; it releases the question: less what? Words may evoke different responses.
**3. Poorly expressed messages**: No matter how clear the idea in the mind of the sender, it may still be marked by poorly chosen words, omissions, lack of a coherence poor organization of ideas, awkward sentence structure platitudes, unnecessary jargon and a failure to clarify the implications of the message. This lack of clarity and precision can be very costly.

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**4. Organization and structure problems**: In large-scale enterprises, where it is necessary to have several layers of supervisor in the organizational structure, communications may suffer due to losses in transmission.

**5. Status problems**: Inefficiency in communications may also result from the differences in rank or status of transmitters and receivers. People or low in status tend to be slow to communicate with superior, thus resulting in a lack of necessary upward flow of information.

**6. Information overload**: One might think that more and unrestricted information flow would help to overcome communication problems. But unrestricted flow may result in too much information. People respond to information overload in various ways.

**7. Poor listening and premature evaluation**: There are many talkers but few listeners. Listening demands full attention and self-discipline. It also means avoiding premature evaluation of what the other person has to say. A common tendency is to judge, to approve or disapprove what is being said, rather than trying to understand the speaker's frame of reference. Yet listening without making hasty judgments can make the whole enterprise more effective and more efficient.

**8. Change Issues**: The purpose of communication is to affect what may seriously concern employees e.g. shifts in time, type and order of work, communications concerning changes are skills to be used. Communications concerning changes are unlikely to be received in full by receivers. People tend to resist change and are likely to ignore or filter out those matters which threaten existing positions or cause some conflict.

Q. Comment freely on measures to achieve effective communication.

**Achieving Effective Communication**

Comprehending the barriers to communication and taking steps to minimize them are therefore the first step towards improving manager's ability to communicate effectively. A sound, basic communication programme is the key to effective communication. A sound programme includes the fundamental concept that communication is an executive skill and that opportunities for developing the personal skills of executives in all aspect of human activity/relation should be provide.

Whether oral or written, the effectiveness of communication requires the following conditions.

(i) A known comprehensive communication structure.

(ii) A code (rule) governing the relations among people occupying various roles.

(iii) A quality of relationship among people immediately connected with each other.

(iv) Communication must be an active one, not a passive process.

(v) Communication must be sincere and open.

Q. Highlight and comment on the ten commandments of good communication.

**The Ten Commandments of Good Communication**

The American Management Associations (AMA) has codified a number of communication principles into what it calls the ten commandments of good communication. Those commandments which are designed to improve effectiveness of organizational communication include:

1. Seek to clarify your ideas before communicating. The more systematically we analyze the problem or idea of message to be communicated the clearer it becomes.

2. Examine the true purpose of each communication. The communicator must be clear, in his preparation, as to his key aim.

3. Consider the total physical and human setting whenever you communicate. This is because inappropriate or uncomfortable seating, poor temperature control, shoddy visual material, telephone interruptions, extraneous noise will all contribute failure.

4. Consult with others where appropriate in planning communications.

5. Be mindful, while you communicate, of the overtones as well as the basic content of your message. There is a saying that the tone makes the music. Similarly, in communication the tone of voice, the choice of language and congruency between what is said and hoe it is said influence the reactions of the receiver of the message.

6. Take the opportunity, when it arises, to convey something of help or value to the receiver.

7. Follow up your communication. Too often, information is transmitted without communicating, since communication is complete only when the message is understood by the receiver. And one never knows whether communication is understood unless the sender gets feedback. This is accomplished by asking questions requesting a reply to a letter and encouraging receivers to give their reactions to the message.

8. Communicate for tomorrow as well as today.

9. Be sure you actions support your communications.

10. Seek not to be understood but to understand – be a good listener.

**Information Necessary in organizational Communication**

There are three main areas of necessary information:

**1. Job Content**: Examples include: details of the individual's own function, responsibilities and authorities the results expected and how performance is assessed: how the job affects and is affected by others and how it affects costs/expenses changes to the systems, targets.

**2. Job Context**: Examples include: details of the organization structure, conditions of employment; how to pay and prospects are assessed; change in of proceedings.

**3. General Background**: The overall management philosophy; major company developments/innovations; external developments – such as legislation-affecting the company.

Q. Define the term motivation to bring out its underlying characteristics

**Motivation Concept and Characteristics**

Motivation is a term that has been used frequently in many contexts. Thus, a precise unitary definition would not only be arbitrary but probably also dysfunctional. Broadly speaking, however, motivation is a general term applying to the entire drives, desires, needs, wishes, and similar forces. To say that managers motivate their subordinates is to say that they do those things which they hope will satisfy these drives and desires and induce the subordinates to act in a desired manner.

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According to McFarland (1977), "motivation refers to the way in which urges, desires, aspiration and, or needs direct, control or explain the behaviour of human beings." Motivation is that energizing force that induces or compels and maintains behaviour.

Mitchell (1982) in his review of motivation theory identifies four common characteristics, which underlie the definition of motivation these are:

**(i) Motivation is typified as an individual phenomenon**: Every person is unique and all the major theories of motivation allow for this uniqueness to be demonstrated in one way or another.

**(ii) Motivation is described, usually as intentional**: Motivation is assumed to be under the worker's control, and behaviours that are influenced by motivation such as effort expended, are seen as choices of action.

**(iii) Motivation is multifaceted**: The two factors of greatest importance are:

(a) gets people activated (arousal)

(b) the force of an individual to engage in desired behaviour (direction or choice of behaviour).

**(iv) The purpose of motivational theories is to predict behaviour**: Motivation is not the behaviour itself, and it is not performance. Motivation concerns actions and the internal and external forces, which influence a person's choice of action.

Q. List five (5) content motivational theories and their proponents.

**Motivational Contents**

Major content theories of motivation, according to Mullins (1996, pp. 489), include:

**(a) Human Resources model**: Theories X and Y

**(b) Maslow's** hierarchy of needs model

**(c) Alderfer's** modified need hierarchy model

**(d) Herzberg's** two-factor theory

**(e) McClelland's** achievement motivation theory.

Q. Maslow's theory recognizes that because different people have different needs, they are motivated by different things. Discuss the substance of Maslow's theory.

**Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs Theory**

Maslow classified these needs into five basic types and suggested that they are arranged in the order or hierarchy of importance. According to Maslow, needs are hierarchical because lower-level needs must be met before a person will try to satisfy those on a higher level.

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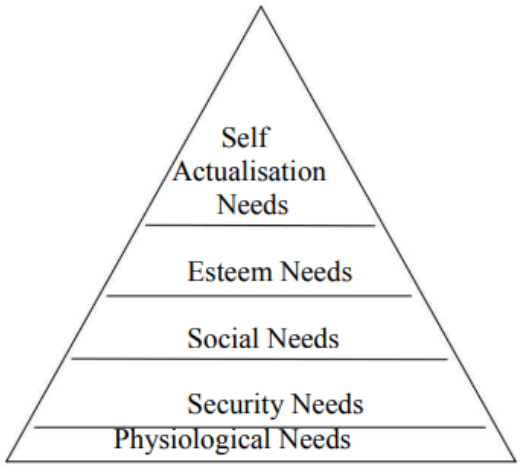



**Fig. 2.2: Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs**

**(1) Physiological needs** are basic necessities for physical survival and include food, water, shelter, and sleep. Businesses address these needs by providing both comfortable working environments and salaries sufficient to buy food and shelter.

**(2) Security needs** are the needs to be free of physical danger and the fear of losing a job, property food or shelter. Many employers thus offer pension plans and job security.

**(3) Social needs** include the needs for friendship and companionship as social beings. Making friends at work can help to satisfy social needs, as can the feeling that you belong in a company.

**(4) Esteem needs**: According to Maslow, once people begin to satisfy their need to belong they tend to want to be held in esteem both by themselves and by others. This kind of need produces such satisfactions as power, prestige, status and self-confidence. Respected job titles and large offices are among the things that businesses can provide to address these needs.

**(5) Need for self-actualization**: Maslow regards this as the highest need in his hierarchy. It is the desire to become what one is capable of becoming – to maximize one's potential and to achieve something new and meaningful. Challenging job assignments can help satisfy these needs.

Q. Discuss Herzberg et al's two- factor theory of motivation.

**Herzberg's Two – Factor Theory**

A further influential insight into motivation was provided by the researches of Frederick Herzberg and his associates (Koont'z and Weirich, 1993) in which they claimed to find a two-factor theory of motivation in their research. According to them, job satisfaction and dissatisfaction depend on two factors:

**(I) Hygiene Factors** which are such things as company policy and administration, supervision, working conditions, interpersonal relations, salary, status, job security and personal life. These were found by Herzberg, et al to be only dissatisfiers and not motivators. In other words, if they exist in a work environment in high quantity and quality, they yield or bring about no dissatisfaction.

(ii) In the second group, Herzberg listed certain satisfiers - and therefore Motivators- all related to job content. They included achievement, recognition, challenging work, advancement and growth in the job. Their existence will yield feeling of satisfaction or no satisfaction (not dissatisfaction.

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**The first group** of factors (the dissatisfiers) will not motivate people in an organization; yet they must be present, or dissatisfaction will arise.

**The second** group or the job content factors, Herzberg found to be real motivators because they have the potential of yielding a sense of satisfaction.

Q. List and discuss the typologies of the process theory of motivation

**Process Theories of Motivation**

(a) Expectancy theory of motivation

(b) Equity theory of motivation

(c) Goal Setting theory

(d) Attribution theory

(e) Reinforcement theory

**1. Expectancy Theory of Motivation**

Expectancy theory has been used to explain choices between different actions, such as decisions about what job to accept. It has also been used to explain the level of intensity regarding a single activity – such as whether or not an employee will attempt to be a high, average, or low performer. The theory is thus obviously aimed at explaining behaviours of interest to organization. The Expectancy theory is frequently referred to as a cognitive theory one in that it emphasizes the importance of the ability to think, to perceive and to understand in determine voluntary activity. There is however three concepts that people presumably think about to understand the process of motivation. These concepts are:

**(i) Valence of Outcomes**: The feeling about specific outcomes is termed valence. This is the attractiveness of, or preference for a particular outcome to the individual. Vroom distinguished valence from value. Valence is the anticipated satisfaction from an outcome. This may differ substantially from value, which is the actual satisfaction provided by an outcome.

**(ii) Instrumentality Perceptions**: A second concept has to do with individuals' beliefs about the connection or linkage between some activity and an outcome. The valence or attractiveness of an outcome derives therefore, from their instrumentality. This leads to a distinction between first-level outcomes and second –level outcomes.

**(iii) Expectancy Perception**: People develop a perception of the degree of probability that the choice of a particular action will actually lead to the desired outcome. Expectancy is therefore the probability that a particular action will lead to a desired outcome.

**2. Equity Theory of Motivation**

Equity theory focuses on social comparisons of people by evaluating their treatment by the organization relative to the treatment of others. According to Adams, (1972) and Jacques (1961), in their equity theory, an employee is not so much concerned with the absolute amount of money (or the total compensation) paid out to him but with the perceived relationship of what he gets with what others (i.e. his counterparts) receive (Banjoko, 1996). This approach holds that people begin by analyzing what they contribute to their jobs (time, effort, education, experience, and so forth) relative to what they get in return (salary, benefits, recognition, security). The result is a ratio of contribution to return. They then compare their own ratios to those of other employees.

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**3. Goal- Setting Theory**

Another theory sometimes considered under the heading of motivation to work is goal theory, or the theory of goal – setting. This theory is based mainly in the work of Locke (Mullins, 1996). The basic assumption of goal setting theory is that people's goal or intentions play an important part/role in determining behaviour. The belief is that people strive to achieve goals in order to satisfy their emotions and desires. Goals guide people's responses and actions. Goals direct work behaviour and performance, and lead to certain consequences or feedback.

Generally speaking, effective goals tend to have two basic characteristics.

1. They are moderately difficult: while a goal that is too easy does little to enhance effort and motivation, a goal that is also too difficult also fails to motivate people.

2. They are specific. A goal of "do your best" for instance, does not motivate people nearly as much as a goal like "increase profit by 10 percent" (Griffin et al., 1999). The specificity and clarity of this goal serves to focus attention and energy on exactly what needs to be done.

**4. Attribution Theory**

According to this theory, behaviour at work may be explained by the locus of control. That is whether the individual perceives outcomes or consequences as controlled by themselves, or by external factors. Judgments made about other people will also be influenced strongly by whether the cause is seen as internal or external.

**5. Reinforcement Theory**

The psychologist Skinner of Harvard developed an interesting – but controversial – technique for motivation. This approach, called positive reinforcement or behaviour modification (Koontz and Weihrich, 1983) holds that individuals can be motivated by proper design or creation of their work environment and praise for their performance and that punishment for poor performance produces negative results. Behaviourist believes that human behaviour can be understood and shaped. The tools to use are:

**(i) Positive reinforcement**

Positive reinforcement is a pleasant term which is almost synonymous with reward. It can vary from praise or a gift to promotion or a pay rise. It is a powerful tool for encouraging behaviours.

**(ii) Negative reinforcement**

Negative reinforcement is not the same as punishment. This is when someone avoids doing something to avoid punishment and does something else instead. While negative reinforcement encourages action but in a different direction, punishment suppresses it.

**(iii) Punishment**

Q. Write short notes on the following: i) Job Enrichment ii) Job Enlargement

**1. Job Enrichment**

This is basically where the job is expended on a vertical plane. It rears to the practice of giving workers the opportunity to have greater responsibility for their work and to take greater control over how to do their jobs. In other words, job enrichment entails the attempt to build into jobs a higher sense of challenge and achievement such that, the employee whose job is been enriched is allowed to work on more levels or different aspect of the same basic job. Ideally, the person is

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allowed to see the work through from start to finish. So if a job is extended to include other duties, possible of a higher level with more responsibility the job is enriched.

In summary, the process of job enrichment is a conscious effort to implement some assumptions about motivation to work by including in a job factors which Herzberg has termed motivators. The approach gives an individual more scope, autonomy, responsibility, variety and seeks to satisfy an individual's higher order needs.

**The Advantages of Job Enrichment**

i. more workers are able to do various jobs; this can overcome the problem of absenteeism

ii. Teams can do their one checking and less supervisor are needed iii. All companies that have introduced programmes of job enrichment claimed that it led to reduction in labour turnover, raised productivity and improved employees' morale.

**The Disadvantages of Job Enrichment**

i. Possible high cost of re-designing plant or re-tooling.

ii. Unless all levels of workers and management are committed to change, especially change that affect the basic content of their jobs, job enrichment

iii. May not work. It takes a long time to change attitudes.

iv. It is easier to introduce only if there is an end product

v. Some persons do not want responsibility and this must be considered a substitute for an appropriate pay scheme.

**2. Job Enlargement**

Job enlargement follows the same concept but on a horizontal plane. This can be termed "more of the same job" or the horizontal loading of jobs. It is done by adding tasks on duties of the same type and level but without adding more responsibility on needed more skill. Hence job enlargement refers to the practice of expanding the content of a job by increasing the number and variety of tasks on duties performed at the same level. For example, a production line worker who installed only the bumper on a car may have his job enlarged to install both the bumper and the front hood. Job enlargement attempts to make a job more varied by removing the dullness associated with performing repetitive operation.

**The Advantages of Job Enlargement**

(i) Reduction in worker fatigue and relief from boredom where work is specialized and repetitive.

(ii) Employee/worker can exercise more control over his working space and use a wider range of skills.

**The Disadvantages of Job Enlargement**

(i) Although personal satisfaction is increasing it may not produce a more technical work. Reductions in output and quality have been noted in a number of cases.

(ii) Some workers resist change and may not wish for enlargement of their jobs.

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(iii) The actual system of production is in the matter of technology, where specialized machinery and assembly line technique may not leave much scope for enlargement of jobs.

Q. Explain the reasons people work

**Why People Work**

The question as to why people work qualifies for varied and multiple answers. Generally, the significance of work to an individual will depend on a number of variables. But historically, two opposing attitudes toward work have been held by employees:

1. Work is a means to an end. It is usually unpleasant, but we must work to reach the ends we desire and pay our living cost. In other words, it is a way of obtaining the necessary income required to live a valued way of life; hence it is accentual life interest.

2. Work is an end in itself and is very satisfying. A person gains fulfillment through work.

3. The significance of work will also depend on sociological factors because attitudes toward work and a job are developed from the total culture; from the person's experiences, educational background, age are from attitudes the individual sees in friends and family.

4. People also work for spiritual or religions reason.

5. Yet again, the social Darwinism tried to explain that work has survival value.

6. The psychologist believed that work is a primary reinforcer and so attached to work are food, shelter, social esteem and approval, meaning that, work has both moral value and inherent goodness.

Q. In what ways can managers motivate employees to perform?

**How to Motivate and Improve Employee Performance**

Richard steers and Lyman Carter make the following suggestions about using motivation theory to improve employee performance.

1. If managers want to improve employees' attitudes and performance, managers must be active in influencing motivation processes. Shifts toward more positive work attitude or better motivational climates do not just happen. Managers have to make them happen.

2. Before managers attempt to improve the motivation levels of others, they should have a clear view of their motives, strength, and weaknesses and how they themselves are perceived by others at work.

3. Managers should understand that peers' employees' and supervisors' abilities, attitudes, and motives differ: that one set of rewards is not likely to lead to equal effect or performance on the part of everyone.

4. High performance and effect to increase managers must define superior performance and reward superior performers. At the time of the reward the link between superior performance and reward must be clearly communicated.

5. High performance also requires that employees know what is expected of them on the job and that employees are placed in the types of jobs that will satisfy their needs.

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6. Motivation and performance are also affected by supervisor's style and social interaction (group dynamics) at work. Managers should determine whether these two factors facilitate performance.

7. Work attitude are important to motivation and performance. Managers need to use attitudes surveys more frequently to assess employees work attitudes and then take steps to improve the less desirable attitudes.

8. The motivation of many employees will be improved if they participate more fully in processes aimed at attaining organizational effectiveness.

Q. Explain the meaning of organizational structure

**Meaning of Organization Structure**

According to Mullins (2000), structure is the pattern of relationships along the positions in the organization and among members of the organization. The purpose of structure is the division of work among members of the organization, and the coordination of their activities so they are directed towards achieving the goals and objectives of the organization. The structure defines tasks and responsibilities, work roles and relationships and channels of communication.

Structure makes possible the application of the process of management and creates a framework of order and command through which the activities of the organization can be planned, organized, directed and controlled. According to Drucker (1989), the organization structure should satisfy three requirements. These requirements are as follows:

1. It must be organized for business performance

2. The structure should contain the least possible number of management levels

3. Organizational structure must make possible the training and testing of future top management

**The Objectives of Organizational Structure**

The objectives of organizational structure, according to Knight (1977), are as follows:

(i) The economic and efficient performance of the organization and the level of resource utilization.

(ii) Monitoring the activities of the organization.

(iii) Accountability for areas of work undertaken by groups and individual members of the organization.

(iv) Coordination of different parts of the organization and different areas of work.

(v) Flexibility in order to respond to future demands and developments, and adapt to changing environmental influences.

(vi) The social satisfaction of members working in the organization.

Q. Identify and explain levels of organization structure

**Levels of Organization Structure**

**1. The Technical Level:** The technical level is concerned with specific operations and discrete tasks, with the actual job or tasks to be done, and with performance of the technical function.

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Examples are: the physical production of goods in a manufacturing firm; administrative processes giving direct service to the public in government departments; the actual process of teaching in an educational establishment.

**2. The Managerial Level:** The technical level interrelates with the managerial level, or organizational level, which is concerned with the coordination and integration of work at the technical level. Decisions at the managerial level relate to the resources necessary for performance of the technical function, and to the beneficiaries of the products or services provided.

**3. The Community Level:** In turn, the managerial level interrelates with the community level or institutional level, concerned with broad objectives and the work of the organisation as a whole. Decisions at the community level will be concerned with the selection of operations, and the development of the organisation in relation to external agencies and the wider social environment.

Q. Mention and explain the different forms of relationship in organization.

**Comment on the Forms of Relationship in Organisation**

**(i) Line Relationships**

In line relationships, authority flows vertically down through the structure, for example, from the managing director to managers, section leaders, supervisors and other staff. There is a direct relationship between superior and subordinate, with each subordinate responsible to only one person. Line relationships are associated with functional or departmental division of work and organizational control. Line managers have authority and responsibility for all matters and activities within their own department.

**(ii) Functional Relationships**

Functional relationships apply to the relationship between people in specialist or advisory positions, and line managers and their subordinates. The specialist offers a common service throughout all departments of the organization, but has no direct authority over those who make use of the service. There is only an indirect relationship. For example, the personnel manager has no authority over staff in other departments – this is the responsibility of the line manager. But, as the position and role of the personnel manager would have been sanctioned by top management, other staff might be expected to accept the advice which is given.

**(iii) Staff Relationships**

Staff relationships arise from the appointment of personal assistants to senior members of staff. Persons in a staff position normally have little or no direct authority in their own right but act as an extension of their superior and exercise only 'representative' authority. They often act in a 'gatekeeper' role. There is no direct relationship between the personal assistant and other staff except where delegated authority and responsibility have been given for some specific activity.

**(iv) Lateral Relationships**

Lateral relationships exist between individuals in different departments or sections, especially individuals on the same level. These lateral relationships are based on contact and consultation and are necessary to maintain coordination and effective organizational performance. Lateral

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relationships may be specified formally, but in practice, they depend upon the cooperation of staff and in effect are a type of informal relationship.

**The Types of organizational Structure**

**1. Line and Staff Organization**

Line and staff organization is concerned with different functions which are to be undertaken. It provides a means of making full use of specialists while maintaining the concept of line authority. It creates a type of informal matrix structure.

**2. Functional Organization**

Under this structure, the division of work and the grouping together of people is organized by reference to some common characteristic which forms a logical link between the activities involved. This emphasizes functions of the organizational operations as well as specialization. The most commonly used bases for grouping activities according to function are: specialization; the use of the same set of resources; and the shared expertise of members of staff. It is a matter for decision in each organization as to which activities are important enough to be organized into separate functions, departments or sections. Work may be departmentalized and based on differentiation between task and element functions.

**3. Project Organization**

The division of work and methods of grouping described earlier tend to be relatively permanent forms of structure. With the growth in newer, complex and technologically advanced systems, it has become necessary for organizations to adapt traditional structures in order to provide greater integration of a wide range of functional activities. In recent years, greater attention has been given, therefore, to more flexible forms of structure and the creation of groupings based on project teams and matrix organization. Members of staff from different departments or sections are assigned to the team for the duration of a particular project.

**4. Matrix Organization**

The matrix organization establishes a grid, or matrix, with a two-way flow of authority and responsibility. On the basis of the functional departments, authority and responsibility flow vertically down the line, but the authority and responsibility of the project manager flow horizontally across the organization structure.

Q. Identify and explain common features of organizations

**1. Organizational Sub-Systems:** The important point is the interrelationships and coordination of subsystems in terms of the effectiveness of the organization as an integrated whole. The interrelationship and interdependence of the different parts of the system raise the question of the identification of these subsystems.

**2. Socio-technical System:** According to Mullins (2000), the socio-technical system is concerned with the transformation or conversion process itself, the relationships between technical efficiency and social considerations and the effect on people.

**3. Interaction between Organization and Environment:** An open systems approach is an attempt to view the organization as a purposeful, unified whole in continual interaction with its external environment. The organization (system) is composed of a number of interrelated parts (sub-systems). Any one part of the organizations' activities affects other parts. Managers cannot

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afford to take a narrow, blinkered view. They need to adopt a broader view of the organizations' activities.

**4. Situational Organization:** The contingency approach takes the view that there is no one best, universal form of organization. There are a large number of variables, or situational factors, that influence organizational performance. Contingency models can be seen as an 'if-then' form of relationship. If certain situational factors exist, then certain organizational and managerial variables are most appropriate. Managers can utilize these models to compare the structure and functioning of their own organization (Mullins, 2000).

Q. Discuss how technology impacts on organization

**Influence of Technology on Organization**

According to Mullins (2000), the systems and contingency approaches have drawn attention to the importance of technology in the structure, management and functioning of work organizations. It is important to note that the meaning of technology is interpreted broadly to include both:

- The physical aspects of machines, equipment, processes and work layout (machine technology) involved in the transformation or conversion process
- The actual methods, systems and procedures involved (knowledge technology) in carrying out the work of the organisation and transforming or converting inputs into outputs.

**1. Technology and the Behaviour of People**

According to Mullins, the nature of technology can influence the behaviour of people in work organizations in many ways including the following:

- It influences the specific design of each member's pattern of work including the nature and variety of activities performed, and the extent of autonomy and freedom of action.
- It affects the nature of social interactions, for example, the size and nature of work groups, the extent of physical mobility and of contacts with other people.
- It can affect role position and the nature of rewards.
- It can impose time dimensions on workers and may require set times for attending to operations and a set pace of work; for example, the mechanical pacing of work on a mass-production assembly line.
- It can result in distinguishing features of appearance; for example, the requirement to wear a standard uniform or protective clothing, compared with a personal choice of smart clothes.

**2. Technology and General Climate of Organization**

Technology is a major influence on the general climate of the organization and the behaviour of people at work. The nature of technology is also a potential source of tension and stress that affect motivation and job satisfaction. The systems approach should serve to remind managers that activities managed on the basis of technical efficiency alone are unlikely to lead to optimum improvements in organizational performance. It is important to maintain the balance of the socio-technical system. Changes to the work organization as a result of new developments in technology must take account of human and social factors as well as technical and economic factors.

**3. Information Technology**

The impact of information technology demands new patterns of work organization, especially in relation to administrative procedures. It affects the nature of individual jobs, and the formation and structure of work groups. There is a movement away from large-scale, centralized organization to smaller working units. Processes of communication are increasingly linked to computer systems with the rapid transmission of information and immediate access to other national or international offices. Changes brought by information technology relate to the nature of the management task itself. Information technology bears heavily on the decision-making processes of the organization and increasingly forms an essential part of management information and corporate strategy.

**4. Technology and Conditions of Work**

The growth of information technology implies that individuals may work more on their own, from their personal work stations or even from their own homes, or work more with machines than with other people. One person may be capable of carrying out a wider range of activities. There are changes in the nature of supervision and in the traditional hierarchical structure of jobs and responsibilities.

**5. Technical Change and Human Behaviour**

Mullins (2000) observes that failure to match technical change to the concomitant human and social considerations means that staff may become resentful, suspicious and defensive. People's cognitive limitations, and their uncertainties and fears, may result in a reluctance to accept change.

The psychological and social implications of technical change, such as information technology and increased automation, must not be underestimated. New ideas and innovations should not be seen by members of staff as threats.

Q. Identify and analyze problems inherent in work organization.

**Problems of Work Organization**

**1. Differences in perception**

Individuals see things in different ways. They all have our own unique picture or image of how we see the 'real' world. Differences in perception result in different people attaching different meanings to the same stimuli. As perceptions become a person's reality, value judgements can be a potential major source of conflict.

**2. Limited resources**

Most organizational resources are limited, and individuals and groups have to fight for their share; for example, at the time of the allocation of the next year's budget or when cutbacks have to be made, the greater the limitation of resources, then usually the greater the potential for conflict. In an organization with reducing profits or revenues, the potential for conflict is likely to be intensified.

**3. Departmentalization and specialization**

Most work organizations are divided into separate departments with specialized functions. Because of familiarity with the manner in which they undertake their activities, departments tend to turn inwards and to concentrate on the achievement of their own particular goals. When departments need to cooperate with each other this is a frequent source of conflict. Differing goals and internal environments of departments are also a potential source of conflict.

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**4. The nature of work activities**

Where the task of one person is dependent upon the work of others, there is potential for conflict; for example, if a worker is expected to complete the assembly of a given number of components in a week but the person forwarding the part-assembled components does not supply a sufficient number on time. If reward and punishment systems are perceived to be based on keeping up with performance levels, then the potential for conflict is even greater.

**5. Role conflict**

A role is the expected pattern of behaviours associated with members occupying a particular position within the structure of the organization. In practice, the manner in which people actually behave may not be consistent with their expected pattern of behaviour. Problems of role incompatibility and role ambiguity arise from inadequate or inappropriate role definition and can be a significant source of conflict.

**6. Inequitable treatment**

A person's perception of unjust treatment such as in the operation of personnel policies and practices, or in reward and punishment systems, can lead to tension and conflict. For example, according to the equity theory of motivation, the perception of inequity will motivate a person to take action to restore equity, including changes to inputs or outputs, or through acting on others.

Q. Discuss the essential design parameters which form the basic components of organization structure according of Mintzberg.

Mintzberg (1979) suggesting another approach to the identification of dimensions of structure, gives a set of nine essential design parameters which form the basic components of organisation structure. These nine design parameters, according to Mullins (2000), can be grouped under four broad headings: design of position, design of superstructure, design of lateral linkages and design of decision-making systems.

Information technology is an additional dimension of structural design. The computer based information and decision-support systems influence choices in design of production or service activities, hierarchical structures and organization of support staffs. Information technology may influence the centralization/decentralization of decision-making and control systems (Mullins, 2000).

I. How many tasks should a given position in the organisation contain and how specialised should each task be?
II. To what extent should the work content of each position be standardised?
III. What skills and knowledge should be required for each position?
IV. On what basis should positions be grouped into units and units into larger units?
V. How large should each unit be; how many individuals should report to a given manager?

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